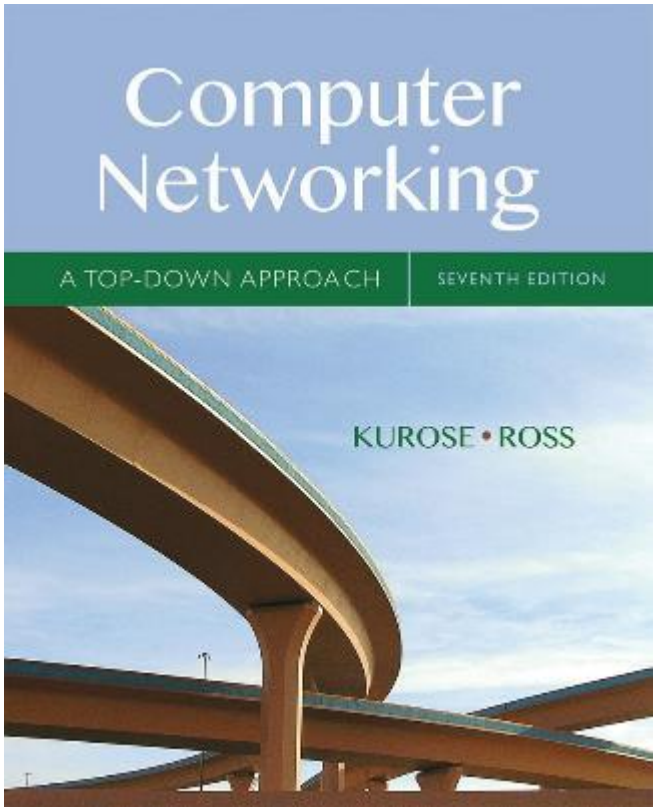
Chapter 6
The Link Layer and LANs



Computer Networking: A Top Down Approach

7th edition
Jim Kurose, Keith Ross
Pearson/Addison Wesley
April 2016

A note on the use of these Powerpoint slides:

We're making these slides freely available to all (faculty, students, readers). They're in PowerPoint form so you see the animations; and can add, modify, and delete slides (including this one) and slide content to suit your needs. They obviously represent a *lot* of work on our part. In return for use, we only ask the following:

- If you use these slides (e.g., in a class) that you mention their source (after all, we'd like people to use our book!)
- If you post any slides on a www site, that you note that they are adapted from (or perhaps identical to) our slides, and note our copyright of this material.

Thanks and enjoy! JFK/KWR

© All material copyright 1996-2016
J.F Kurose and K.W. Ross, All Rights Reserved

Chapter 6: Link layer and LANs

our goals:

- understand principles behind link layer services:
  - error detection, correction
  - sharing a broadcast channel: multiple access
  - link layer addressing
  - local area networks: Ethernet, VLANs
- instantiation, implementation of various link layer technologies

Link layer, LANs: outline

6.1 introduction, services

6.2 error detection, correction

6.3 multiple access protocols

6.4 LANs

- addressing, ARP
- Ethernet
- switches
- VLANS

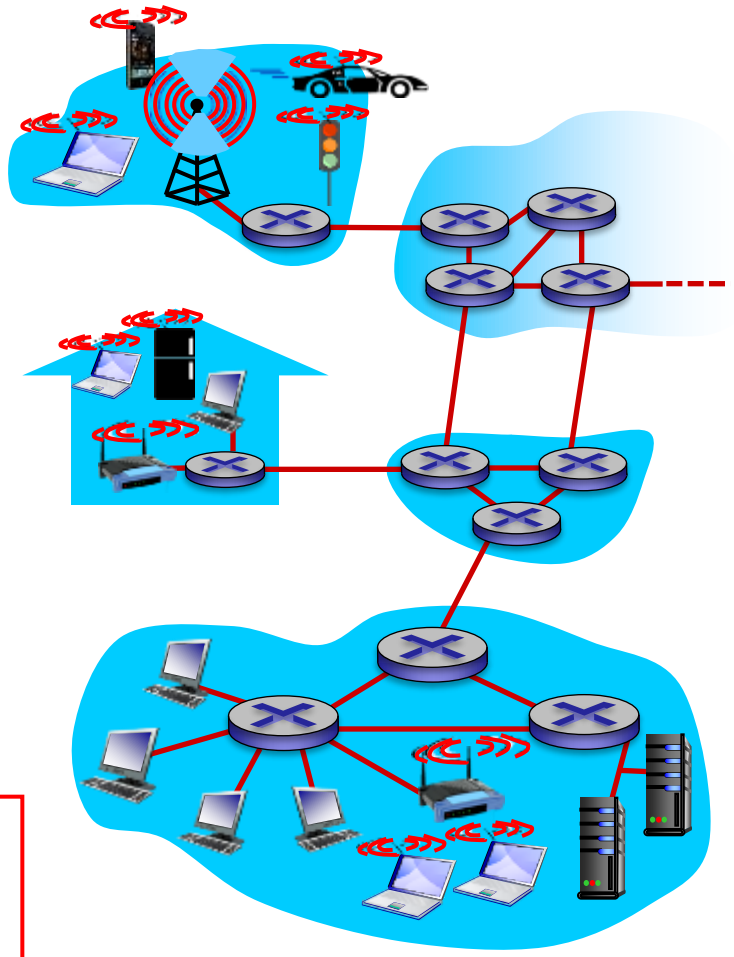
6.5 data center networking

6.6 a day in the life of a web request

Link layer: introduction

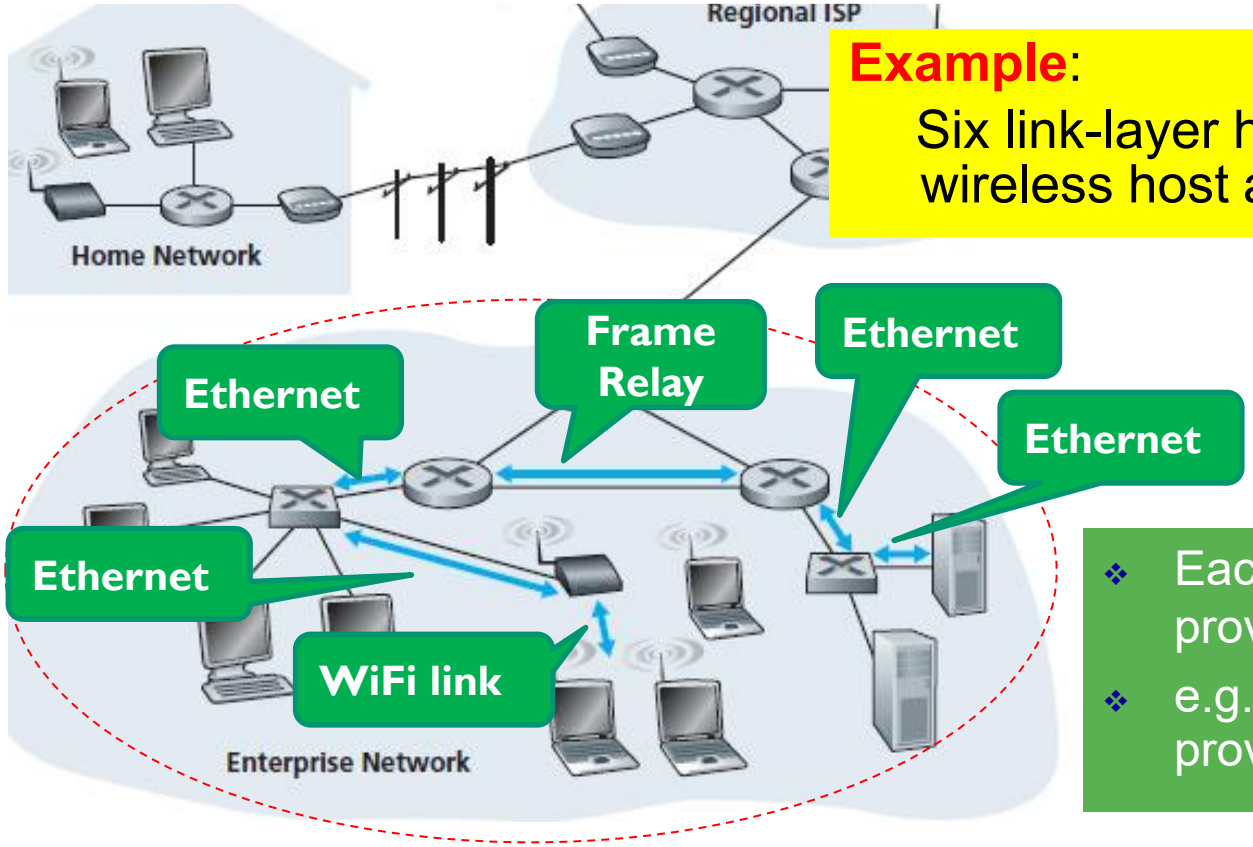
terminology:

- hosts and routers: nodes
- communication channels that connect adjacent nodes along communication path: links
  - wired links
  - wireless links
  - LANs
- layer-2 packet: frame, encapsulates datagram



data-link layer has responsibility of transferring datagram from one node to *physically adjacent* node over a link

data-link layer has responsibility of transferring datagram from one node to physically adjacent node over a link



Example:

Six link-layer hops between wireless host and server.

- Each link protocol provides different services
- e.g., may or may not provide `rdt` over link

Link layer: context

- datagram transferred by different link protocols over different links:
  - e.g., Ethernet on first link, frame relay on intermediate links, 802.11 on last link
- each link protocol provides different services
  - e.g., may or may not provide rdt over link

transportation analogy:

- trip from Princeton to Lausanne
  - limo: Princeton to JFK
  - plane: JFK to Geneva
  - train: Geneva to Lausanne
- tourist = datagram
- transport segment = communication link
- transportation mode = link layer protocol
- travel agent = routing algorithm

Link Layer Services

- *Framing, Link access:*
  - encapsulate datagram into frame, adding header, trailer
  - Medium access control (MAC) protocol specifies rule for frame transmission
  - "MAC" addresses (e.g. `74-29-2F-10-54-1A-FF-0F`) used in frame headers to identify source, destination
    - different from IP address (e.g.`161.139.68.204`)!

- Reliable delivery between adjacent nodes:
  - we learned how to do this already (chapter 3)!
    - i.e. acknowledgement and retransmission
  - Reliable delivery seldom used on low bit-error link (e.g. fiber, some twisted pair)
  - Reliable delivery often used in wireless links: high error rates

Link layer services

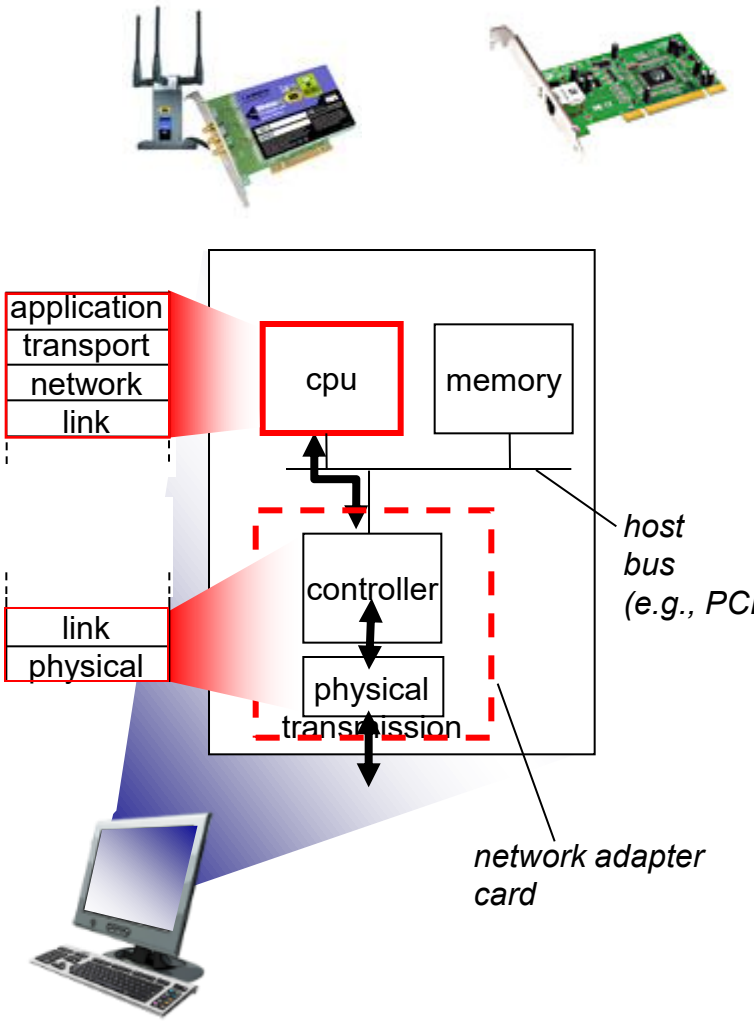
- *framing, link access:*
  - encapsulate datagram into frame, adding header, trailer
  - channel access if shared medium
  - "MAC" addresses used in frame headers to identify source, destination
    - different from IP address!
- *reliable delivery between adjacent nodes*
  - we learned how to do this already (chapter 3)!
  - seldom used on low bit-error link (fiber, some twisted pair)
  - wireless links: high error rates
    - *Q:* why both link-level and end-end reliability?

Link layer services (more)

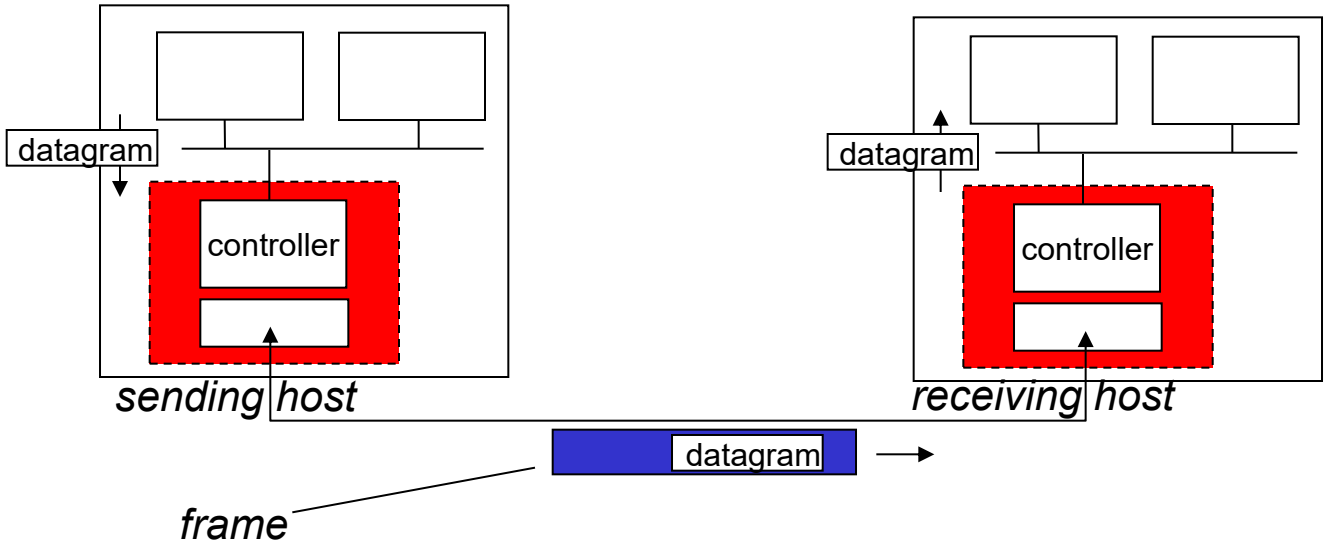
- *flow control:*
  - pacing between adjacent sending and receiving nodes
- *error detection:*
  - errors caused by signal attenuation, noise.
  - receiver detects presence of errors:
    - signals sender for retransmission or drops frame
- *error correction:*
  - receiver identifies *and corrects* bit error(s) without resorting to retransmission
- *half-duplex and full-duplex*
  - with half duplex, nodes at both ends of link can transmit, but not at same time

Where is the link layer implemented?

- in each and every host
- link layer implemented in "adaptor" (aka *network interface card* NIC) or on a chip
  - Ethernet card, 802.11 card; Ethernet chipset
  - implements link, physical layer
- attaches into host's system buses
- combination of hardware, software, firmware



Adaptors communicating



- sending side:
  - encapsulates datagram in frame
  - adds error checking bits, rdt, flow control, etc.
- receiving side
  - looks for errors, rdt, flow control, etc.
  - extracts datagram, passes to upper layer at receiving side

Link layer, LANs: outline

6.1 introduction, services

6.2 error detection, correction

6.3 multiple access protocols

6.4 LANs

- addressing, ARP
- Ethernet
- switches
- VLANS

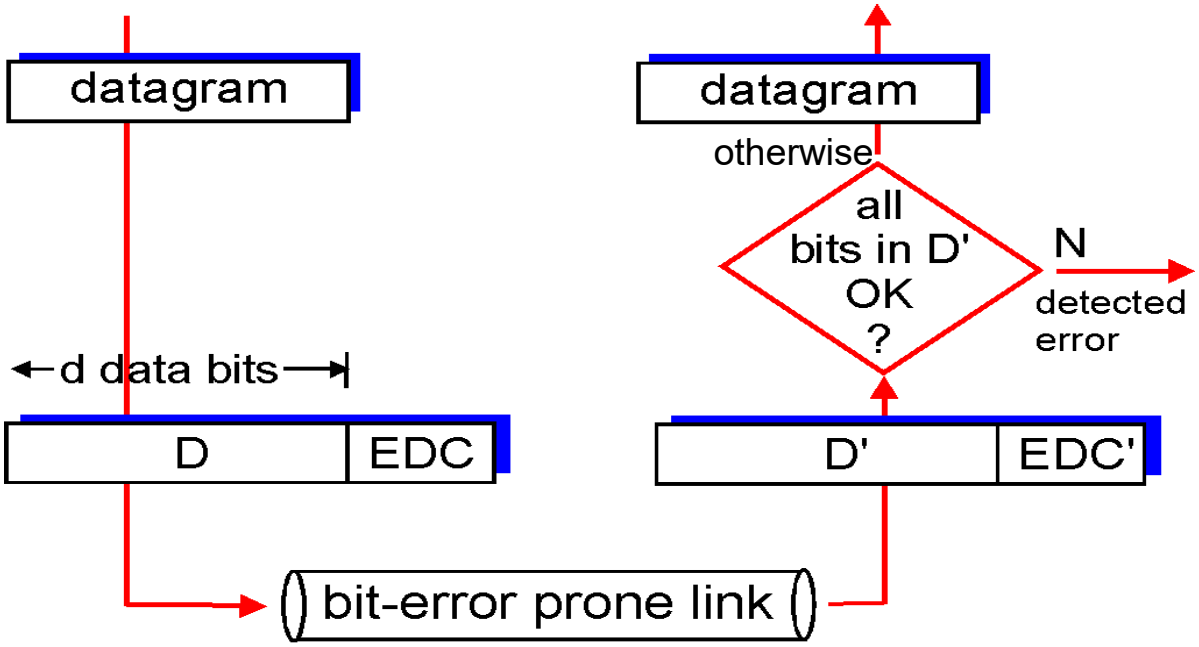
6.6 data center networking

6.7 a day in the life of a web request

Error detection

EDC= Error Detection and Correction bits (redundancy)
D = Data protected by error checking, may include header fields

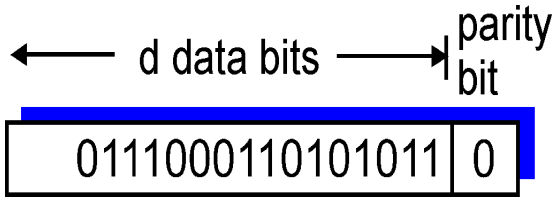
- Error detection not 100% reliable!
  - protocol may miss some errors, but rarely
  - larger EDC field yields better detection and correction



Parity checking

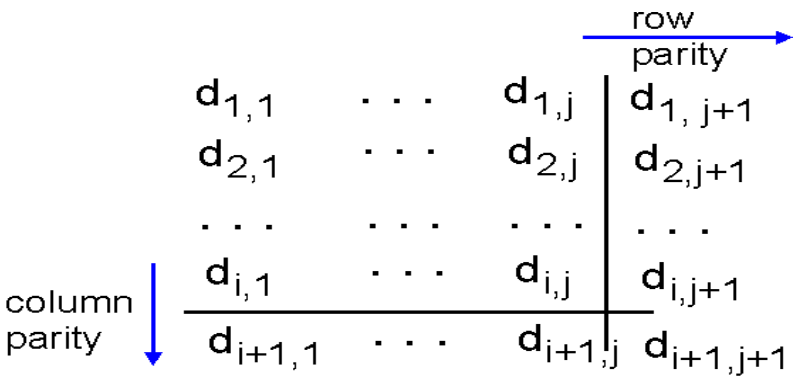
single bit parity:

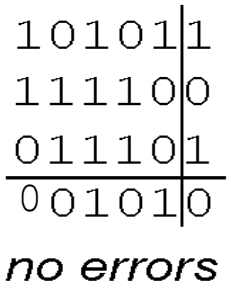
- *d*etect single bit errors



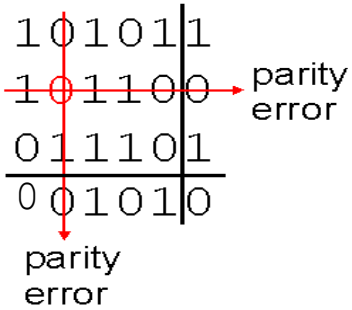
two-dimensional bit parity:

- detect and correct single bit errors





no errors

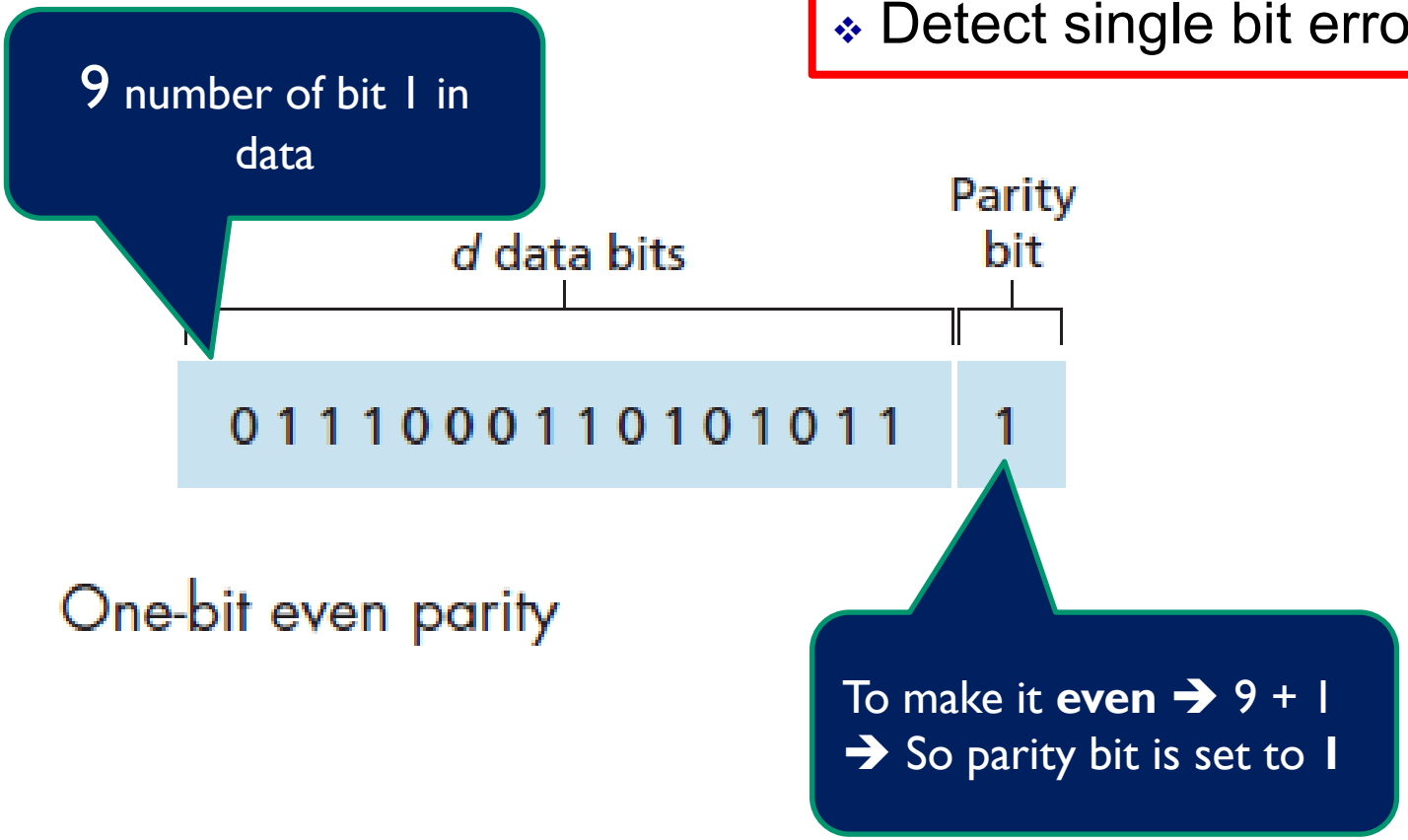


correctable single bit error

* Check out the online interactive exercises for more examples: http://gaia.cs.umass.edu/kurose_ross/interactive/

Single Bit Parity:

- Detect single bit errors



One-bit even parity

Receiver will count the number of 1s in the received *d + 1 bits* ➔ *and if not the* ***even*** *value* ➔ ***error*** *occured*

Two-dimensional Bit Parity:

- Detect and correct single bit errors

Transmitted data (unprotected):
`1111000 1010101 1111111`

Even parity

1	1	1	1	0	0	0	0
1	0	1	0	1	0	1	0
1	1	1	1	1	1	1	1
1	0	1	0	0	1	0	1

the **receiver** can **take initiative** to **correct (change) the received message**

Received

1	1	1	1	0	0	0	0
1	0	1	0	1	0	1	0
1	0	1	1	1	1	1	1
1	0	1	0	0	1	0	1

Error Detected!

Odd parity

Odd parity

Internet checksum (review)

goal: detect "errors" (e.g., flipped bits) in transmitted packet (note: used at transport layer only)

sender:

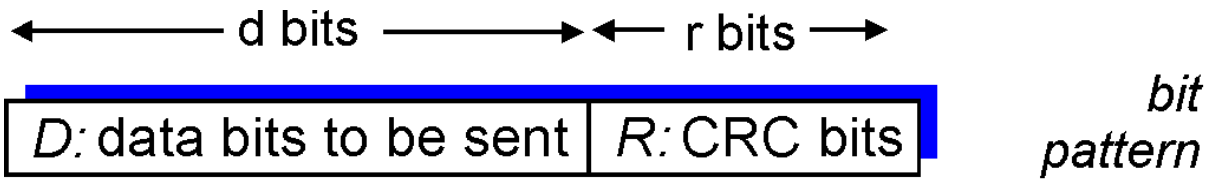
- treat segment contents as sequence of 16-bit integers
- checksum: addition (1's complement sum) of segment contents
- sender puts checksum value into UDP checksum field

receiver:

- compute checksum of received segment
- check if computed checksum equals checksum field value:
  - NO - error detected
  - YES - no error detected. *But maybe errors nonetheless?*

Cyclic redundancy check

- more powerful error-detection coding
- view data bits, D, as a binary number
- choose r+1 bit pattern (generator), G
- goal: choose r CRC bits, R, such that
  - <D,R> exactly divisible by G (modulo 2)
  - receiver knows G, divides <D,R> by G. If non-zero remainder: error detected!
  - can detect all burst errors less than r+1 bits
- widely used in practice (Ethernet, 802.11 WiFi, ATM)



$D * 2^r \quad XOR \quad R$ — *mathematical formula*

Cyclic redundancy check

1) Agree with receiver that `r = 3` bits

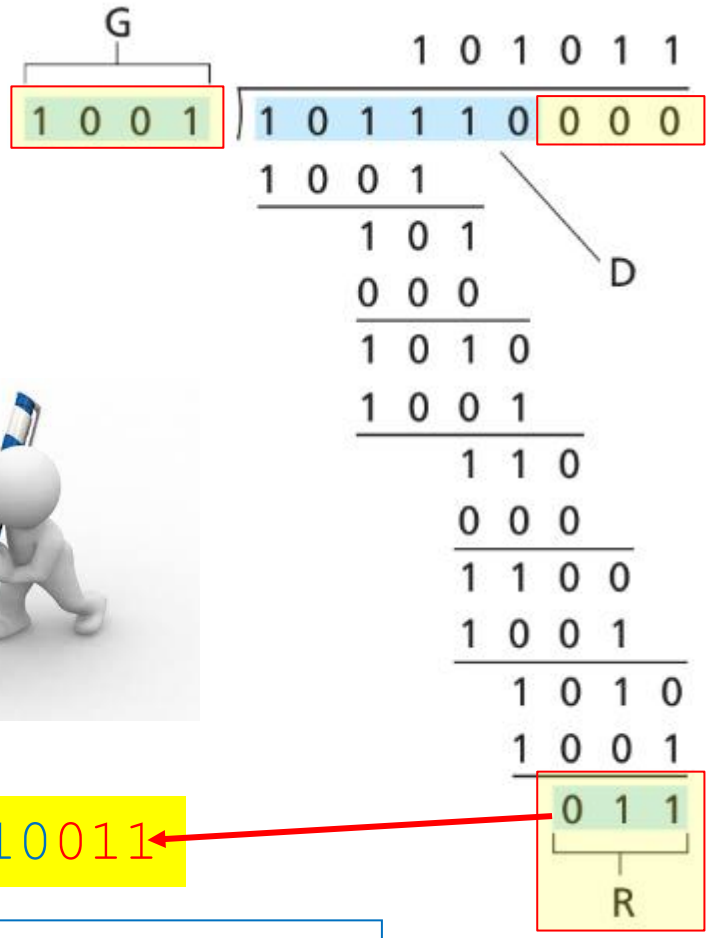
2) Append 3 zeros (R) to *D*
→ `101110000`

3) Agree on *G* (must be `r+1 = 3+1 = 4` bits).
Can choose from {`1000, 1001, 1010, 1011, 1100, 1101, 1110, 1111`}
→ choose `1001`

4) Get *R* (`r` bits)

5) Append R to *D*. Send to receiver

Example: @ Sender



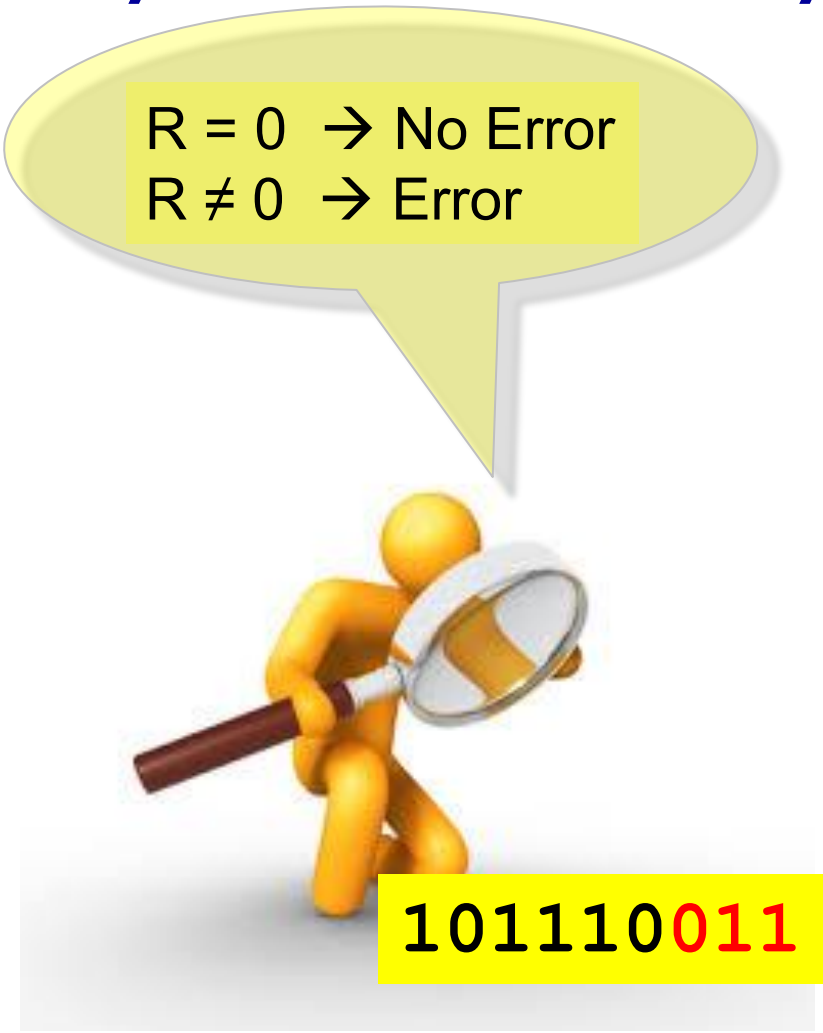


`101110011`

What's transmitted ?

Cyclic redundancy check

R = 0 → No Error
R ≠ 0 → Error



Example: @ Receiver

```
          101011
      ------------
1001 ) 101110011
       1001
       ----
        101
        000
        ---
        1010
        1001
        ----
         110
         000
         ---
         1101
         1001
         ----
          1001
          1001
          ----
           000
```

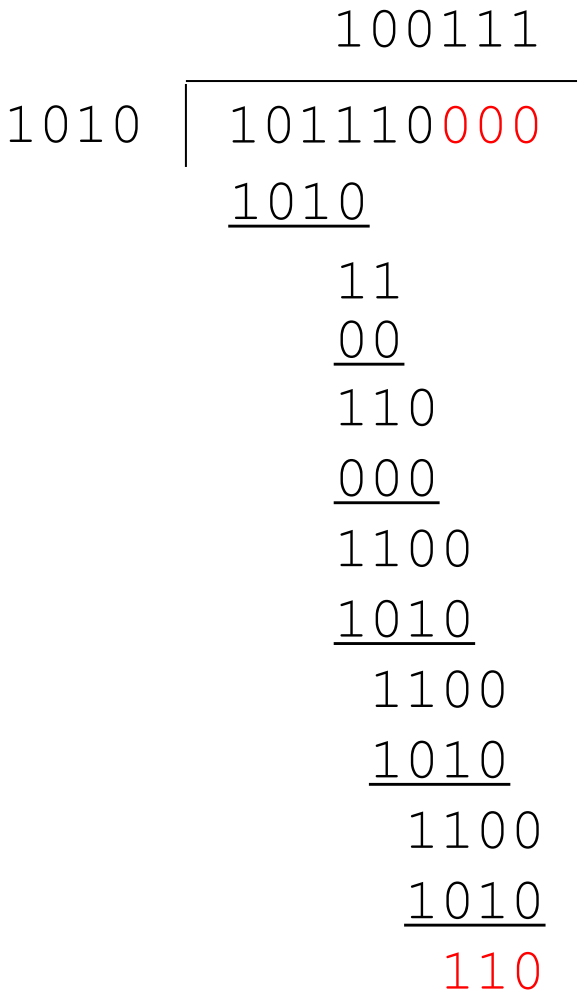
G

R

Exercise

If the data to be sent is `101110` and the CRC technique is used with `r = 3` and G = `1010`.

a) What is the value of R?
b) What is the data will be sent?



Solution:

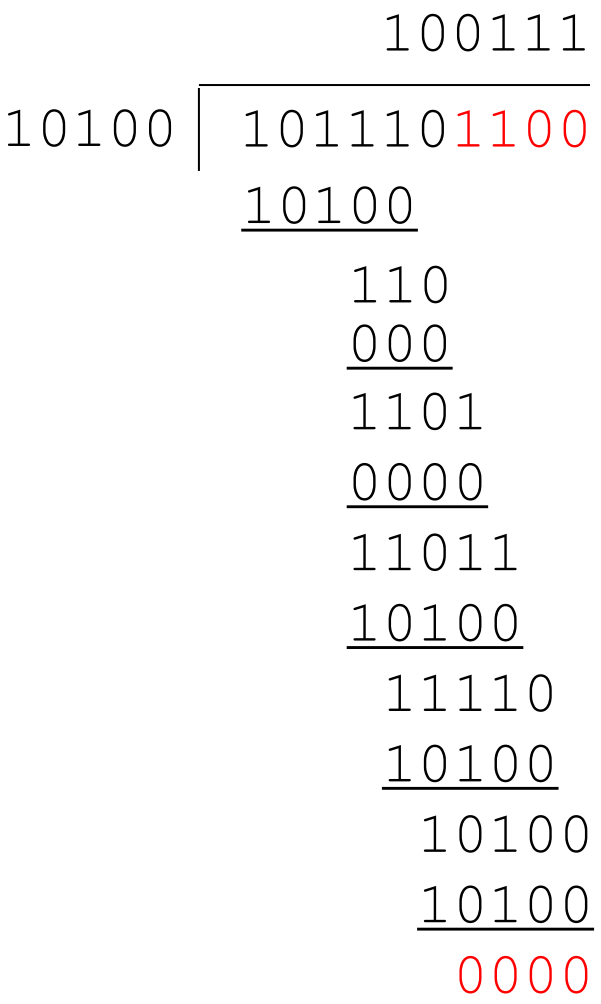
a) R = `110`

b) Data send = `101110110`

Exercise

If the data received is 1011101100 and the CRC technique is used with G = 10100.

a) What is the value of CRC?
b) Is the data error?



Solution:

a) CRC = 1100

b) Since zero remainder, there is no error to the data received.

Link layer, LANs: outline

6.1 introduction, services

6.2 error detection, correction

6.3 multiple access protocols

6.4 LANs

- addressing, ARP
- Ethernet
- switches
- VLANS

6.5 data center networking

6.6 a day in the life of a web request

Multiple access links, protocols

two types of "links":

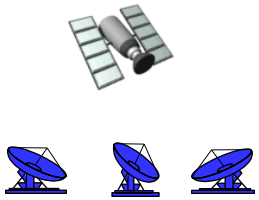
- point-to-point
  - PPP for dial-up access
  - point-to-point link between Ethernet switch, host
- *broadcast (shared wire or medium)*
  - old-fashioned Ethernet
  - upstream HFC
  - 802.11 wireless LAN



shared wire (e.g., cabled Ethernet)



shared RF (e.g., 802.11 WiFi)



shared RF (satellite)



humans at a cocktail party (shared air, acoustical)

Broadcast: Various multiple access channels

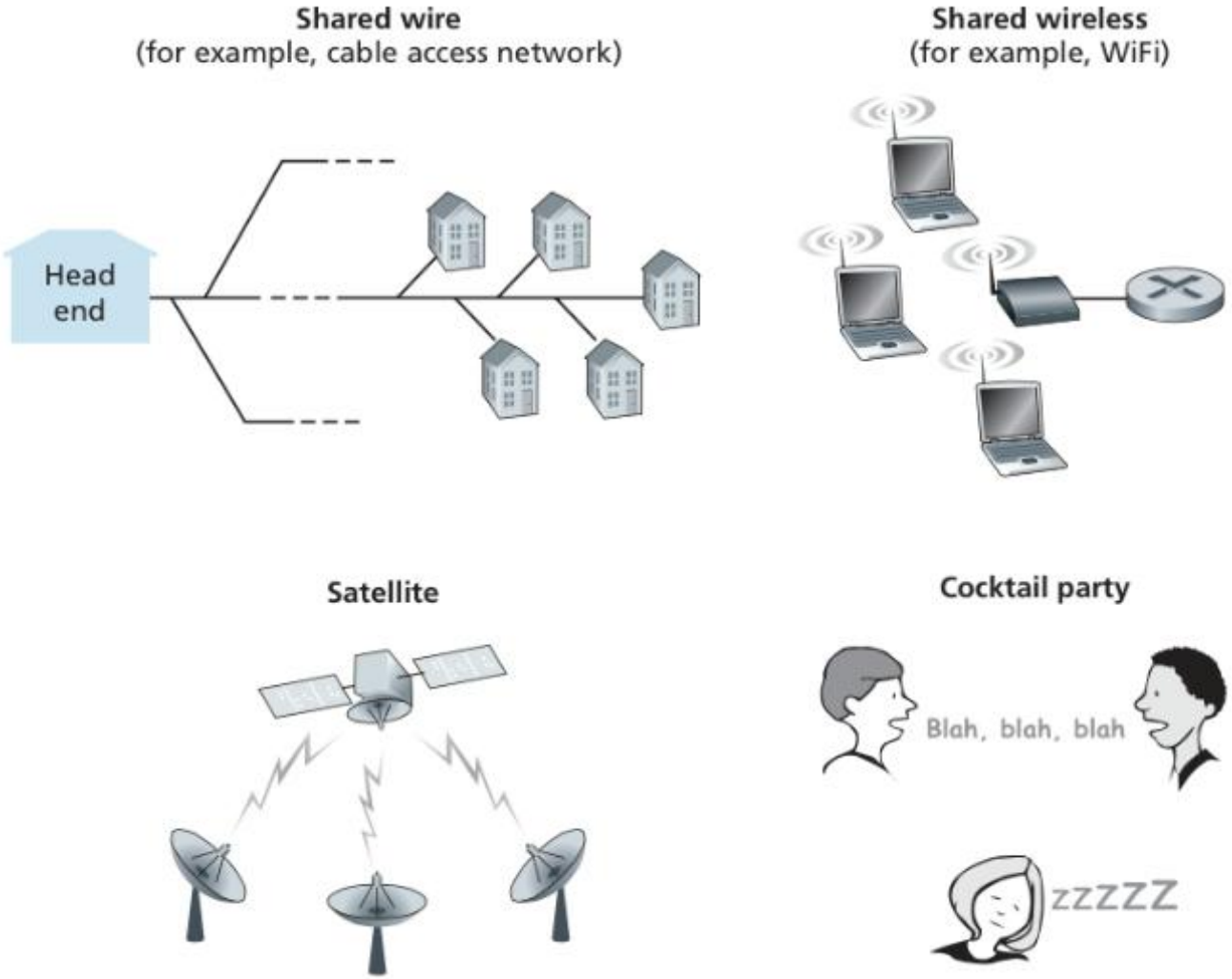


Figure: Broadcast: Various multiple access channels.

Multiple access protocols

- In LANs, WiFi, satellite networks (similar to cocktail party)
  - If more than 2 users send message (or talk) @ the same time - collision
  - All collided packets are lost -> waste of bandwidth
- Thus multiple access protocols are distributed algorithm that determines how nodes utilizes shared broadcast channel,
  - i.e., to determine when node can transmit
- communication about the channel sharing must use channel itself!
  - no out-of-band channel for coordination

Multiple access protocols

- single shared broadcast channel
- two or more simultaneous transmissions by nodes: interference
  - *collision* if node receives two or more signals at the same time

multiple access protocol

- distributed algorithm that determines how nodes share channel, i.e., determine when node can transmit
- communication about channel sharing must use channel itself!
  - no out-of-band channel for coordination

An ideal multiple access protocol

given: broadcast channel of rate R bps

desiderata:

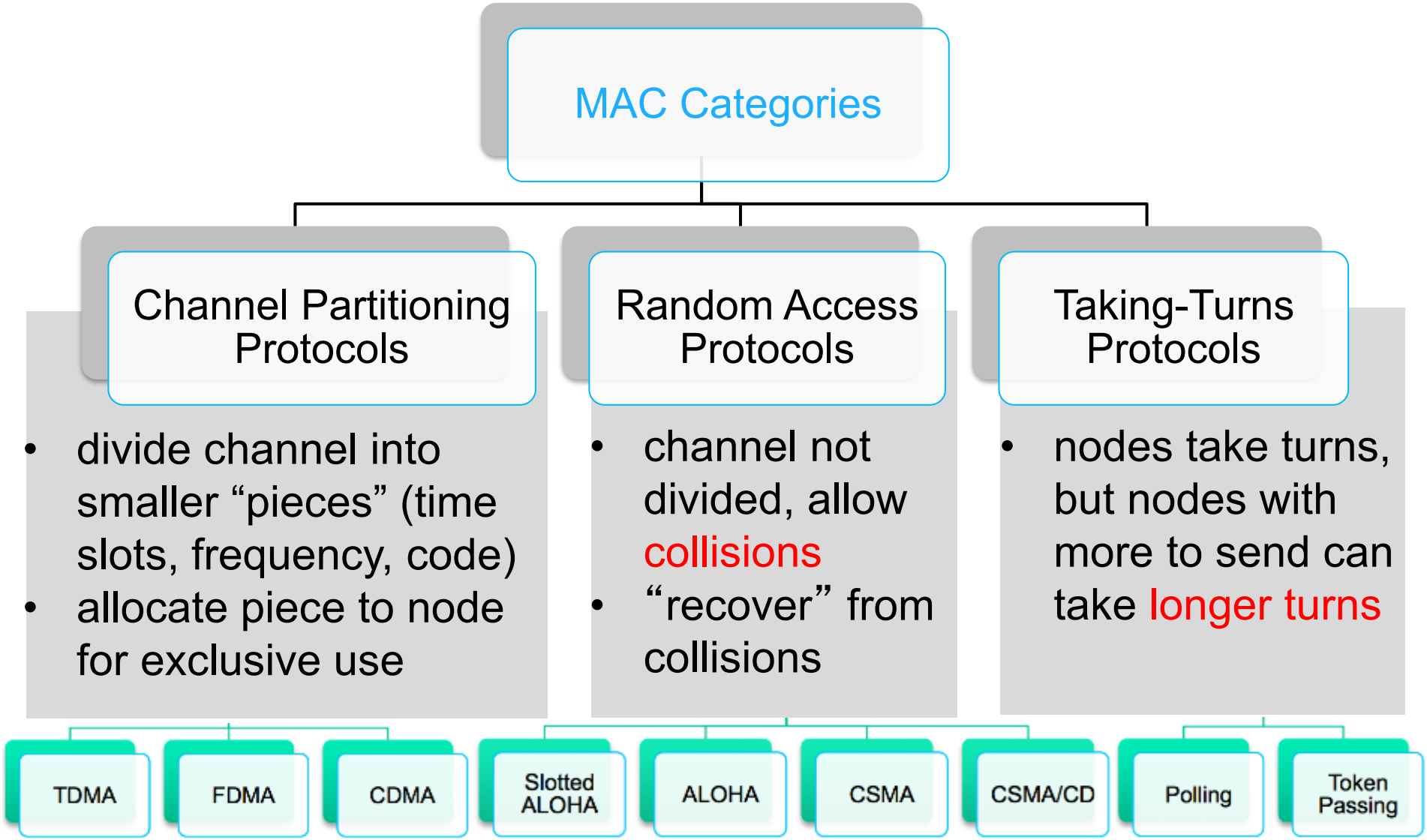
1. when one node wants to transmit, it can send at rate R.
2. when M nodes want to transmit, each can send at average rate R/M
3. fully decentralized:
   - no special node to coordinate transmissions
   - no synchronization of clocks, slots
4. simple

MAC protocols: taxonomy

three broad classes:

- *channel partitioning*
  - divide channel into smaller "pieces" (time slots, frequency, code)
  - allocate piece to node for exclusive use
- *random access*
  - channel not divided, allow collisions
  - "recover" from collisions
- *"taking turns"*
  - nodes take turns, but nodes with more to send can take longer turns

MAC protocols

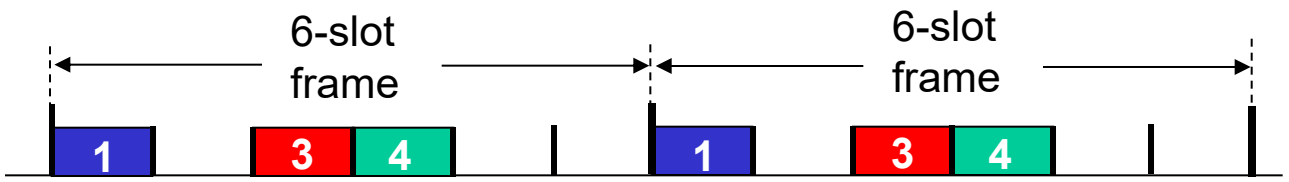


CSMA/CA

Channel partitioning MAC protocols: TDMA

TDMA: time division multiple access

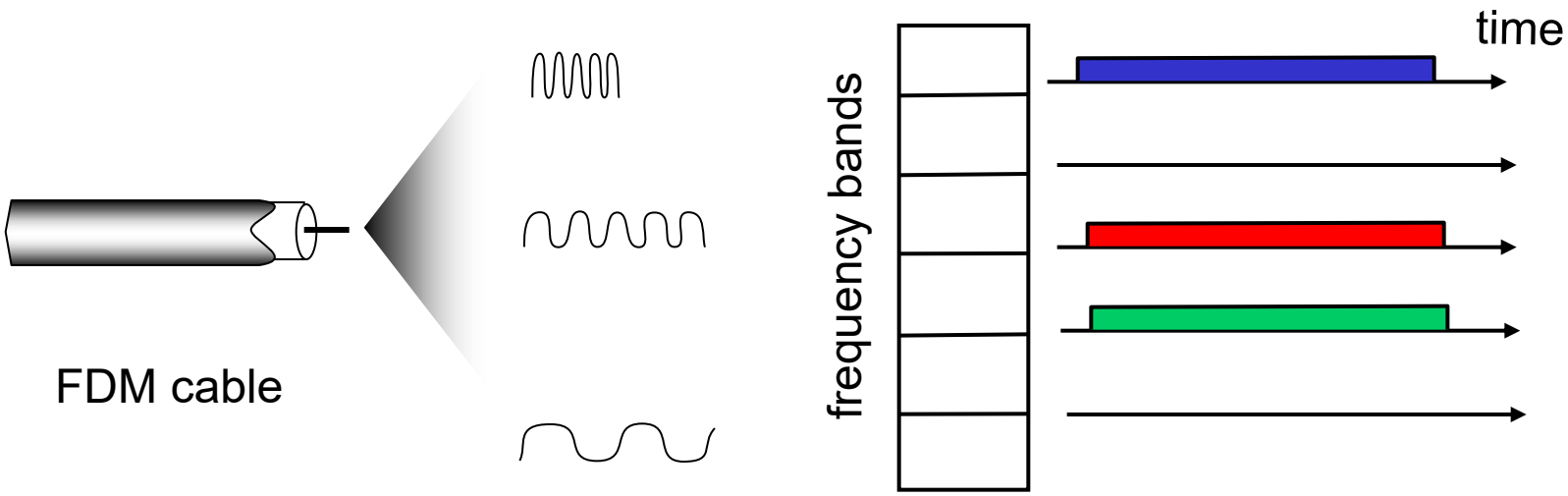
- access to channel in "rounds"
- each station gets fixed length slot (length = packet transmission time) in each round
- unused slots go idle
- example: 6-station LAN, 1,3,4 have packets to send, slots 2,5,6 idle



Channel partitioning MAC protocols: FDMA

FDMA: frequency division multiple access

- channel spectrum divided into frequency bands
- each station assigned fixed frequency band
- unused transmission time in frequency bands go idle
- example: 6-station LAN, 1,3,4 have packet to send, frequency bands 2,5,6 idle



Channel partitioning MAC protocols: CDMA

CDMA: Code Division Multiple Access

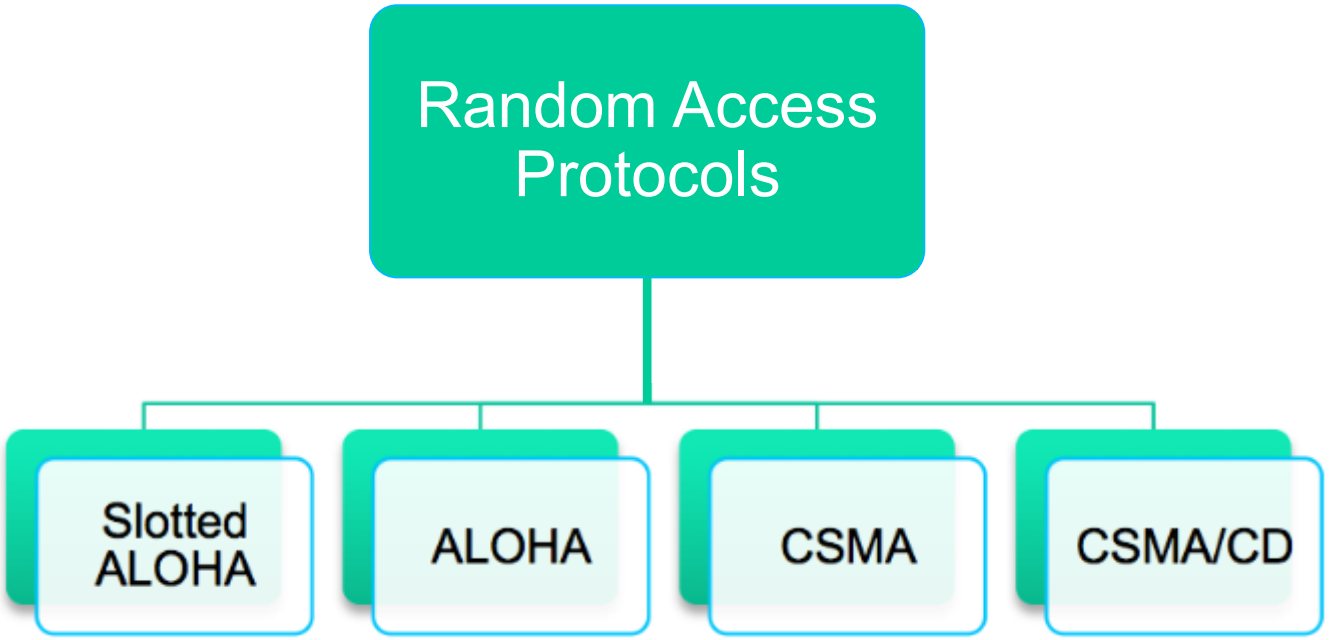
- Assigns a different *code* to each node;
- Each node uses its unique code to encode the data bits it sends;
- If the code chosen carefully, different nodes can transmit simultaneously;

- CDMA has been used in military for some time;
- now has widespread civilian use, particularly in cellular telephony (wireless channel)
  - … more on Chapter 7

Random access protocols

- when node has packet to send
  - transmit at full channel data rate R.
  - no *a priori* coordination among nodes
- two or more transmitting nodes ➜ "collision",
- random access MAC protocol specifies:
  - how to detect collisions
  - how to recover from collisions (e.g., via delayed retransmissions)
- examples of random access MAC protocols:
  - slotted ALOHA
  - ALOHA
  - CSMA, CSMA/CD, CSMA/CA

Random access protocols



Slotted ALOHA

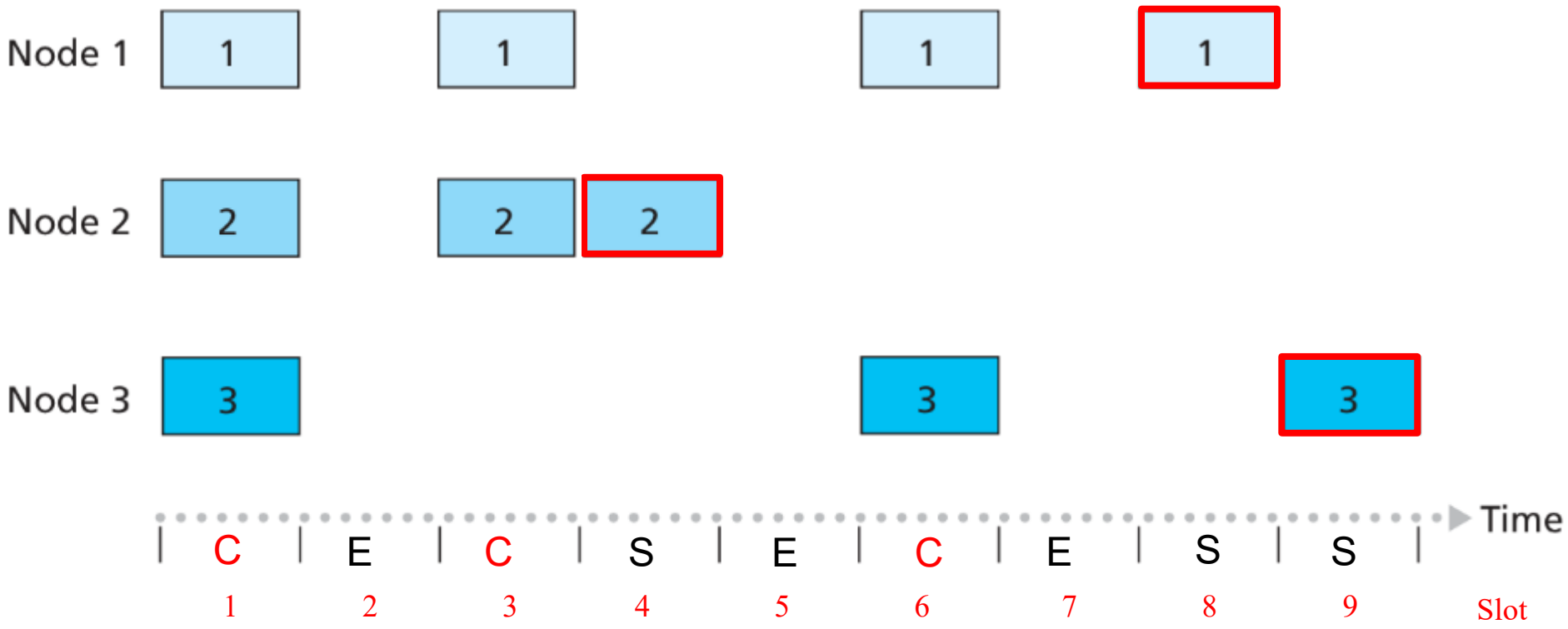
assumptions:

- all frames same size
- time divided into equal size slots (time to transmit 1 frame)
- nodes start to transmit only slot beginning
- nodes are synchronized
- if 2 or more nodes transmit in slot, all nodes detect collision

operation:

- when node obtains fresh frame, transmits in next slot
  - *if no collision:* node can send new frame in next slot
  - *if collision:* node retransmits frame in each subsequent slot with prob. p until success

Slotted ALOHA

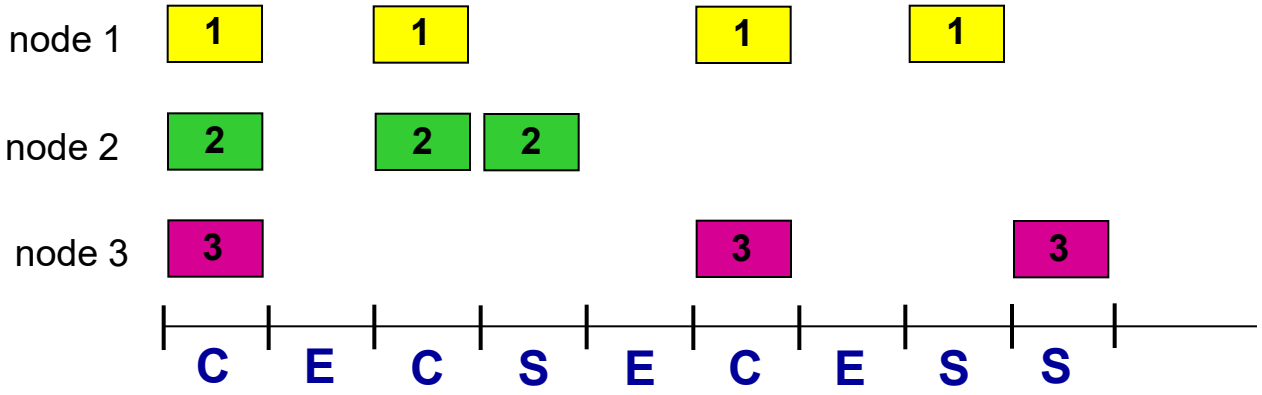


Key:

C = Collision slot
E = Empty slot
S = Successful slot

Figure: Nodes 1, 2, and 3 collide in the first slot.
Node 2 finally succeeds in the fourth slot,
Node 1 in the eighth slot, and
Node 3 in the ninth slot

Slotted ALOHA



Pros:

- single active node can continuously transmit at full rate of channel
- highly decentralized: only slots in nodes need to be in sync
- simple

Cons:

- collisions, wasting slots
- idle slots
- nodes may be able to detect collision in less than time to transmit packet
- clock synchronization

Slotted ALOHA: efficiency

efficiency: long-run fraction of successful slots (many nodes, all with many frames to send)

- *suppose:* N nodes with many frames to send, each transmits in slot with probability p
- prob that given node has success in a slot $= p(1-p)^{N-1}$
- prob that *any* node has a success $= Np(1-p)^{N-1}$

- max efficiency: find p^* that maximizes $Np(1-p)^{N-1}$
- for many nodes, take limit of $Np^*(1-p^*)^{N-1}$ as N goes to infinity, gives:

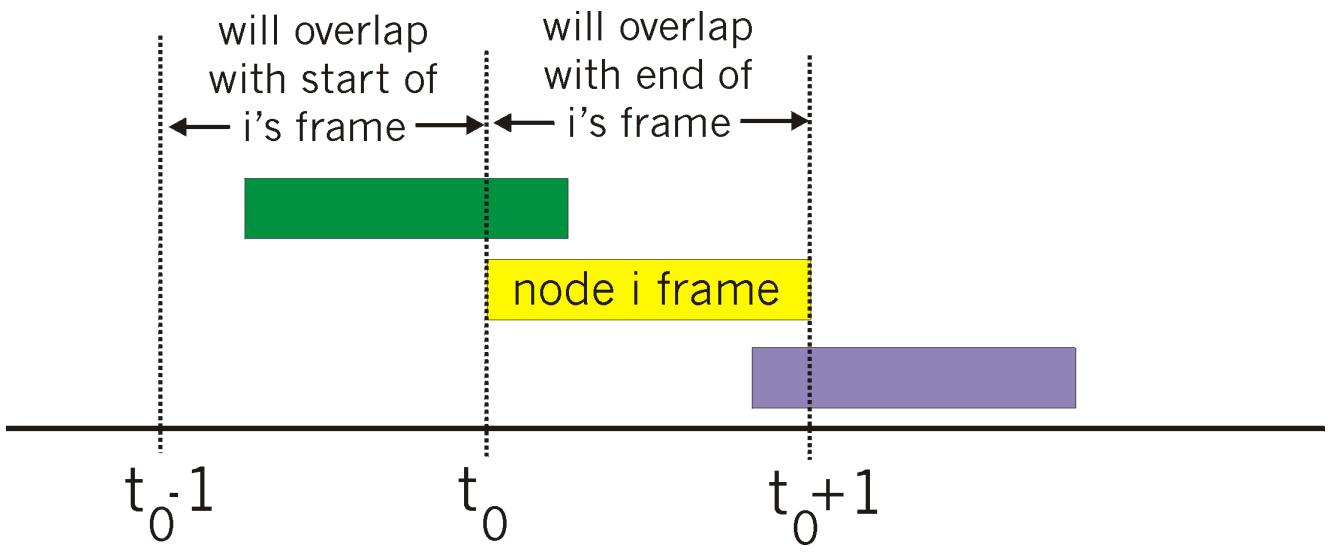
max efficiency $= 1/e = .37$

at best: channel used for useful transmissions 37% of time!

!

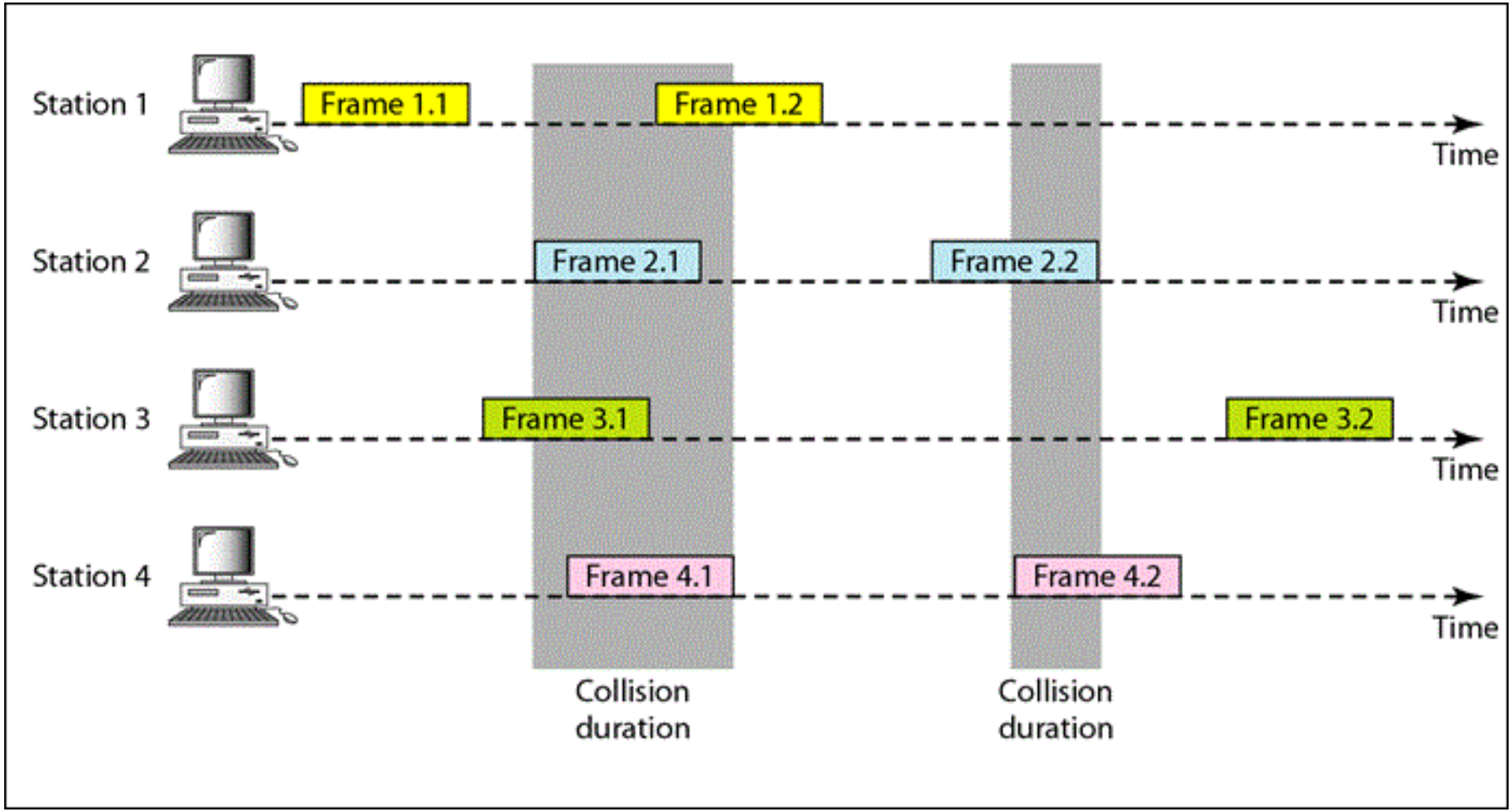
Pure (unslotted) ALOHA

- unslotted Aloha: simpler, no synchronization
- when frame first arrives
  - transmit immediately
- collision probability increases:
  - frame sent at t_0 collides with other frames sent in $[t_0-1, t_0+1]$



Pure ALOHA (Unslotted)

Example 2:



http://1.bp.blogspot.com/-nS-6P90-iCc/U1DF2Kei3fI/AAAAAAAABp4/guEz45WrJU4/s1600/aloha.GIF

Pure ALOHA efficiency

P(success by given node) = P(node transmits) ·
P(no other node transmits in $[t_0\text{-}1,t_0]$ ·
P(no other node transmits in $[t_0\text{-}1,t_0]$

$= p \cdot (1\text{-}p)^{N-1} \cdot (1\text{-}p)^{N-1}$

$= p \cdot (1\text{-}p)^{2(N-1)}$

… choosing optimum p and then letting $n \rightarrow \infty$

$= 1/(2e) = .18$

even *worse* than slotted Aloha!

CSMA

CSMA: Carrier Sense Multiple Access

- Invented to minimize collisions and increase the performance
- A station now “follows” the activity of other stations
- Simple rules for a polite human conversation
  - Listen before talking
  - If someone else begins talking at the same time as you, stop talking

CSMA (carrier sense multiple access)

CSMA: listen before transmit:

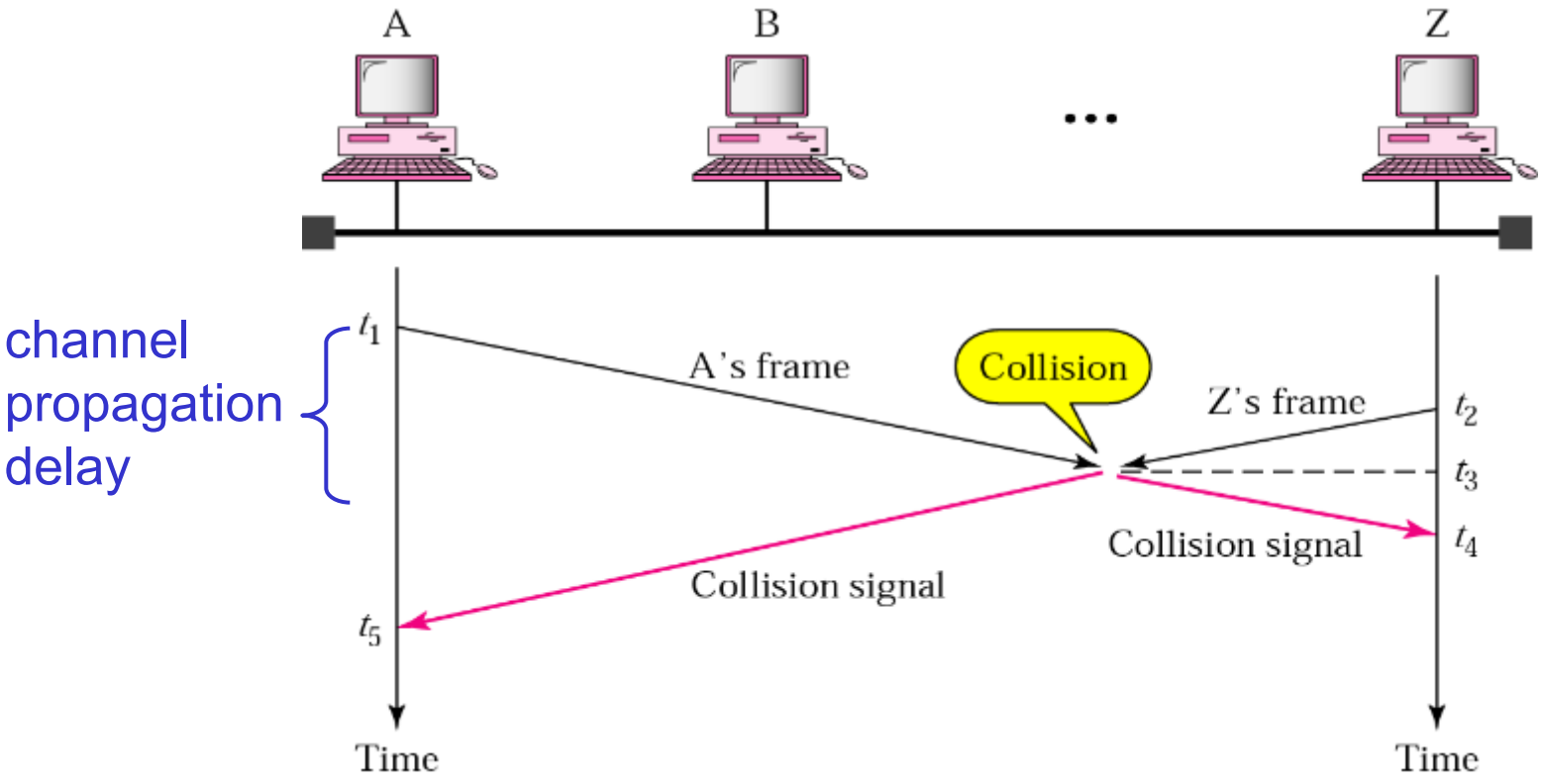
if channel sensed idle: transmit entire frame

- if channel sensed busy, defer transmission

- human analogy: don't interrupt others!

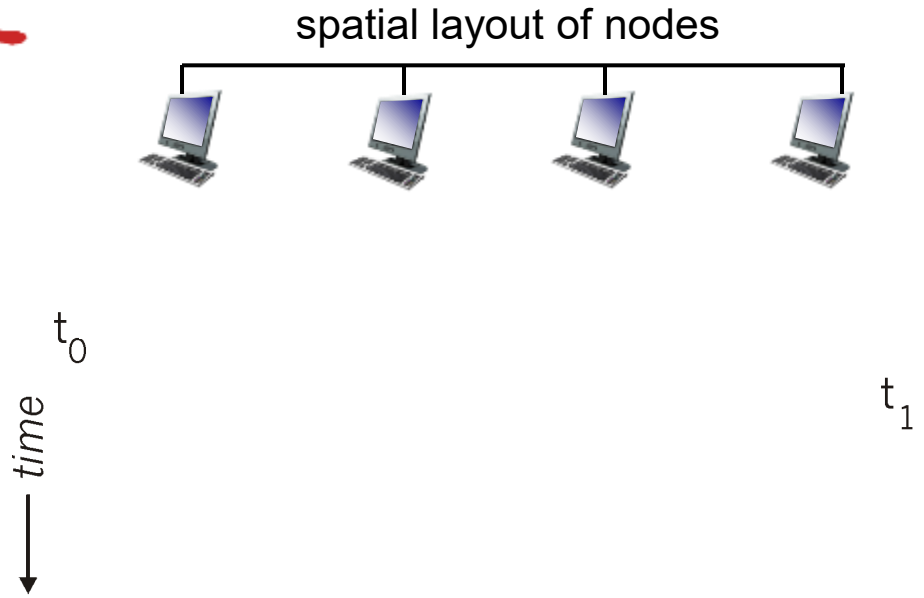
CSMA

- If everyone is sensing the medium how come that collisions still occur?



CSMA collisions

- collisions *can* still occur: propagation delay means two nodes may not hear each other's transmission
- collision: entire packet transmission time wasted
  - distance & propagation delay play role in in determining collision probability



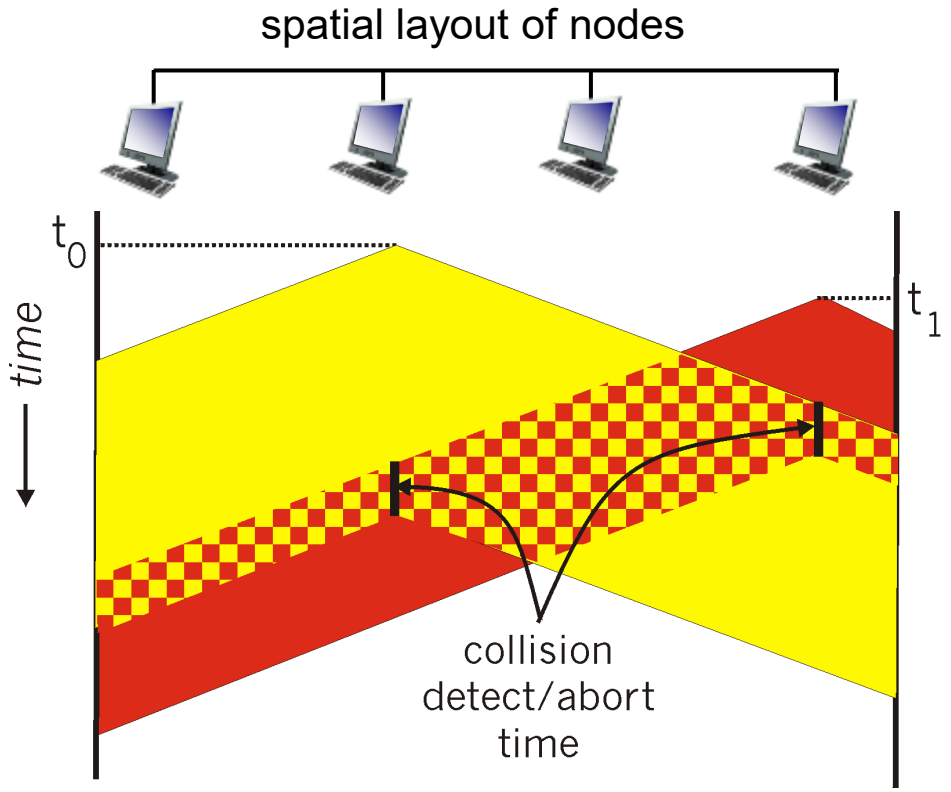
CSMA/CD (collision detection)

CSMA/CD: carrier sensing, deferral as in CSMA

- collisions *detected* within short time
- colliding transmissions aborted, reducing channel wastage

- collision detection:
  - easy in wired LANs: measure signal strengths, compare transmitted, received signals
  - difficult in wireless LANs: received signal strength overwhelmed by local transmission strength
- human analogy: the polite conversationalist

CSMA/CD (collision detection)



Ethernet CSMA/CD algorithm

1. NIC receives datagram from network layer, creates frame
2. If NIC senses channel idle, starts frame transmission. If NIC senses channel busy, waits until channel idle, then transmits.
3. If NIC transmits entire frame without detecting another transmission, NIC is done with frame !
4. If NIC detects another transmission while transmitting, aborts and sends jam signal
5. After aborting, NIC enters *binary (exponential) backoff:*
   - after *m*th collision, NIC chooses *K* at random from $\{0, 1, 2, \ldots, 2^m-1\}$. NIC waits $K \cdot 512$ bit times, returns to Step 2
   - longer backoff interval with more collisions

CSMA/CD efficiency

- T_{prop} = max prop delay between 2 nodes in LAN
- t_{trans} = time to transmit max-size frame

$$efficiency = \frac{1}{1 + 5t_{prop}/t_{trans}}$$

- efficiency goes to 1
  - as t_{prop} goes to 0
  - as t_{trans} goes to infinity
- better performance than ALOHA: and simple, cheap, decentralized!

"Taking turns" MAC protocols

channel partitioning MAC protocols:

- share channel *efficiently* and *fairly* at high load
- inefficient at low load: delay in channel access, 1/N bandwidth allocated even if only 1 active node!

random access MAC protocols

- efficient at low load: single node can fully utilize channel
- high load: collision overhead

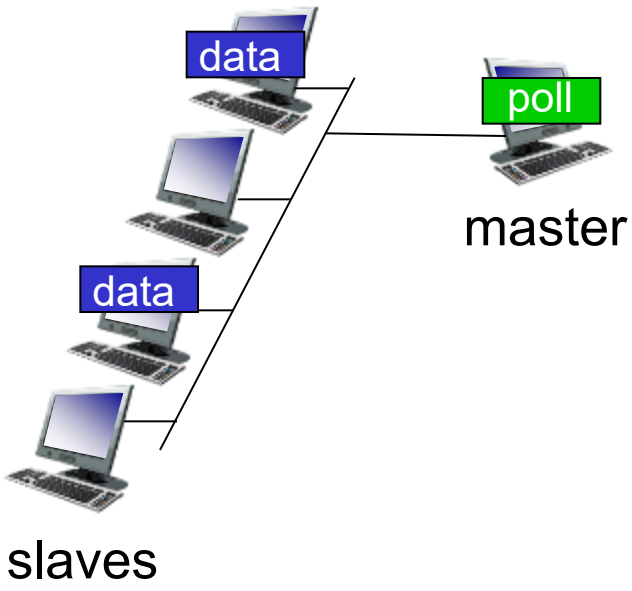
"taking turns" protocols

look for best of both worlds!

"Taking turns" MAC protocols

polling:

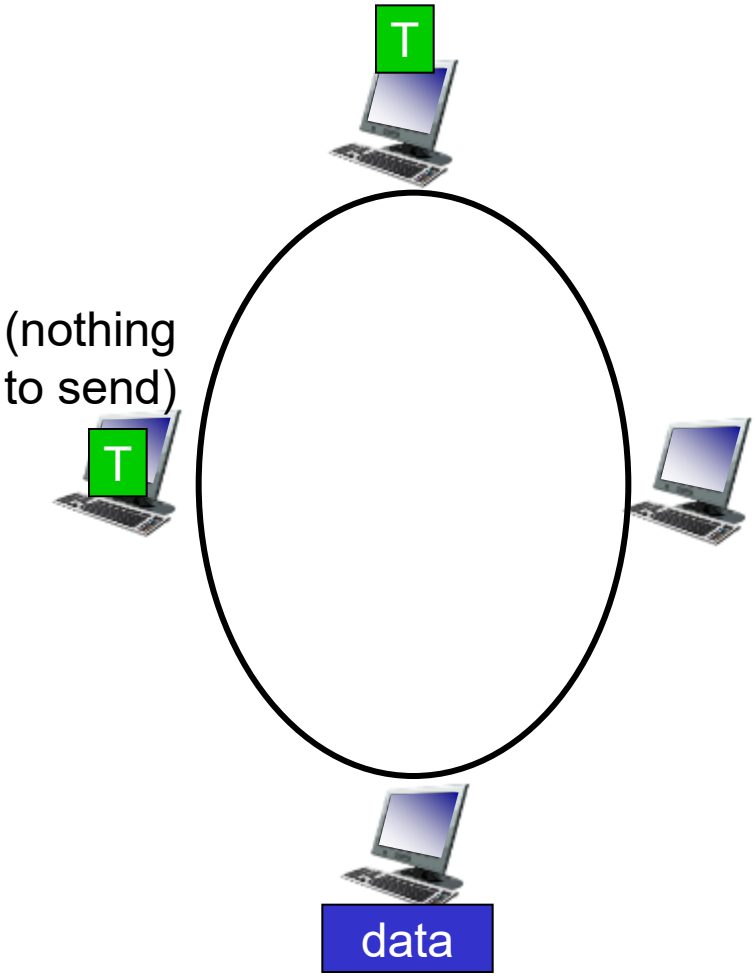
- master node "invites" slave nodes to transmit in turn
- typically used with "dumb" slave devices
- concerns:
  - polling overhead
  - latency
  - single point of failure (master)



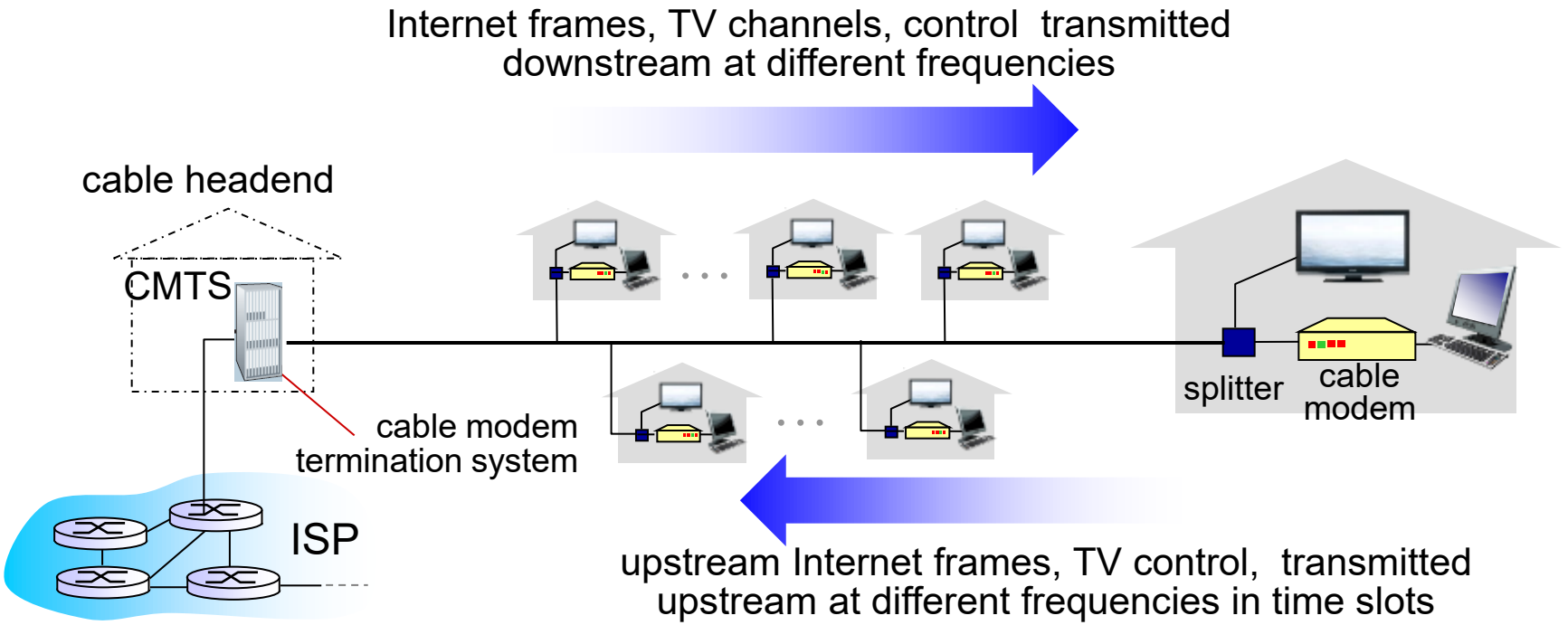
"Taking turns" MAC protocols

token passing:

- control *token* passed from one node to next sequentially.
- token message
- concerns:
  - token overhead
  - latency
  - single point of failure (token)

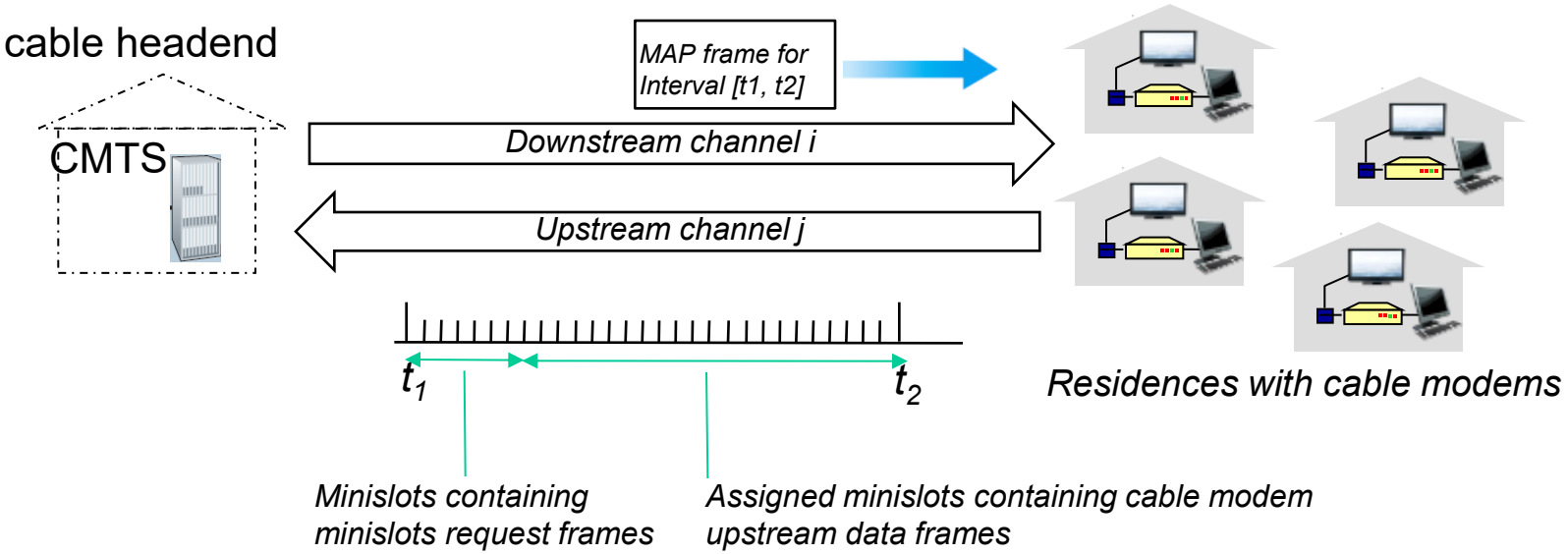


Cable access network



- multiple 40Mbps downstream (broadcast) channels
  - single CMTS transmits into channels
- multiple 30 Mbps upstream channels
  - multiple access: all users contend for certain upstream channel time slots (others assigned)

Cable access network



DOCSIS: data over cable service interface spec

- FDM over upstream, downstream frequency channels
- TDM upstream: some slots assigned, some have contention
  - downstream MAP frame: assigns upstream slots
  - request for upstream slots (and data) transmitted random access (binary backoff) in selected slots

Summary of MAC protocols

- *channel partitioning,* by time, frequency or code
  - Time Division, Frequency Division
- *random access* (dynamic),
  - ALOHA, S-ALOHA, CSMA, CSMA/CD
  - carrier sensing: easy in some technologies (wire), hard in others (wireless)
  - CSMA/CD used in Ethernet
  - CSMA/CA used in 802.11
- *taking turns*
  - polling from central site, token passing
  - Bluetooth, FDDI, token ring

Link layer, LANs: outline

6.1 introduction, services

6.2 error detection, correction

6.3 multiple access protocols

6.4 LANs

- addressing, ARP
- Ethernet
- switches
- VLANS

6.5 data center networking

6.6 a day in the life of a web request

Switched Local Area Networks

- Having covered broadcast networks and multiple access protocols (MAC) in previous section;
- Switches operate at the link layer :

- switch link-layer frames;
- not recognize network-layer addresses
- not use routing algorithms

- Use link-layer addresses

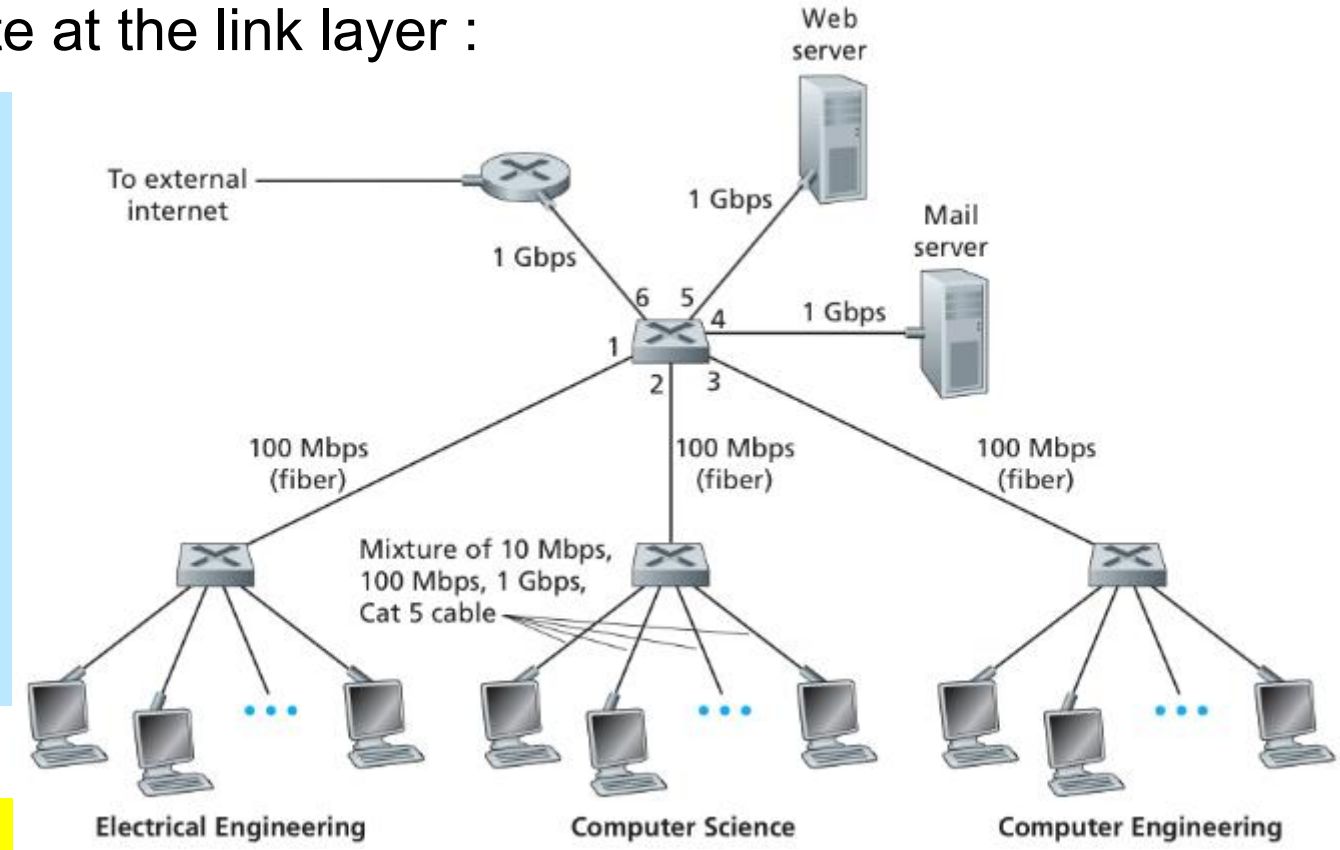


Figure: An institutional network connected together by four switches.

MAC addresses and ARP

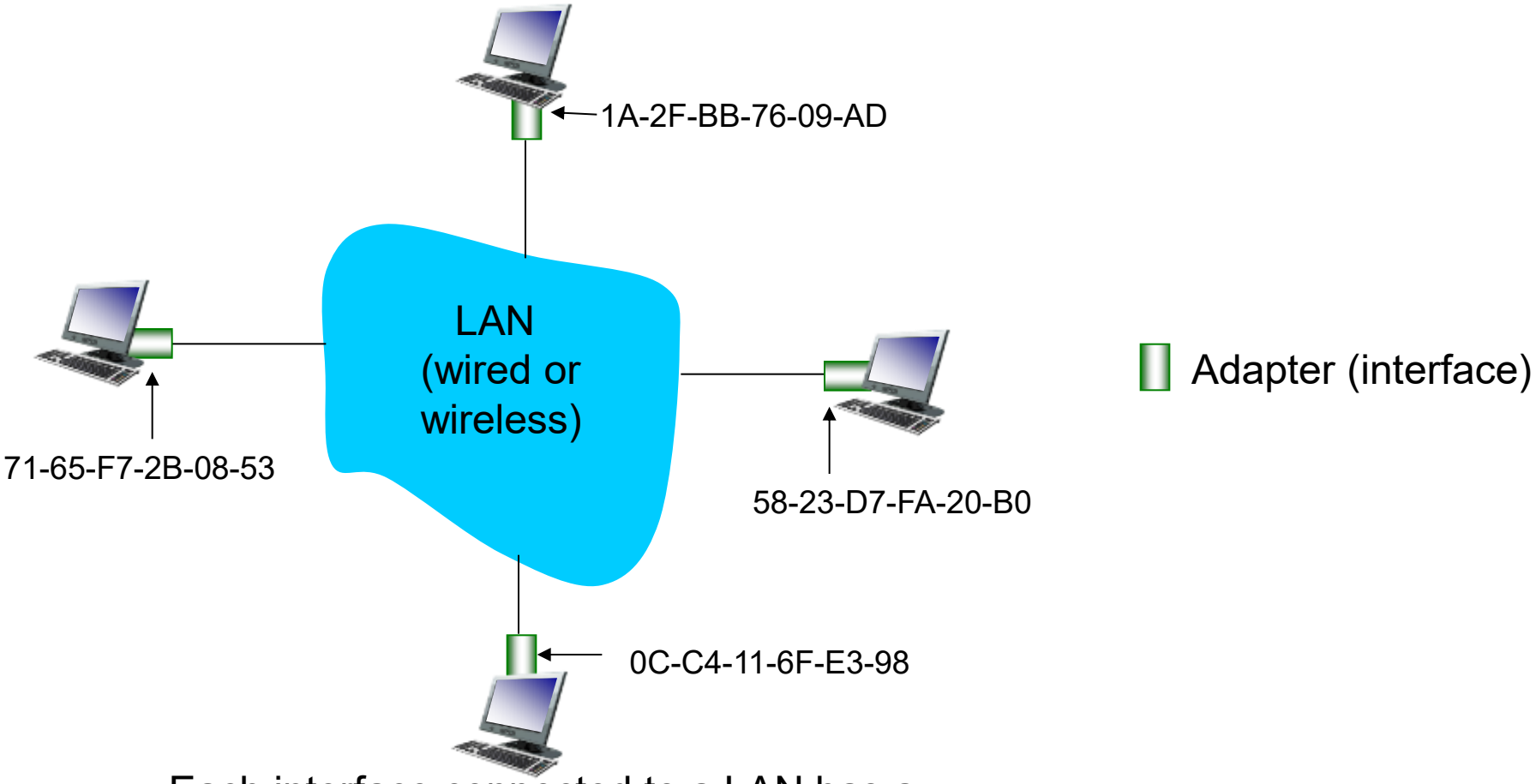


- 32-bit IP address:
  - *network-layer* address for interface
  - used for layer 3 (network layer) forwarding
- MAC (or LAN or physical or Ethernet) address:
  - function: *used 'locally" to get frame from one interface to another physically-connected interface (same network, in IP-addressing sense)*
  - 48 bit MAC address (for most LANs) burned in NIC ROM, also sometimes software settable
  - e.g.: 1A-2F-BB-76-09-AD

hexadecimal (base 16) notation
(each "numeral" represents 4 bits)

LAN addresses and ARP

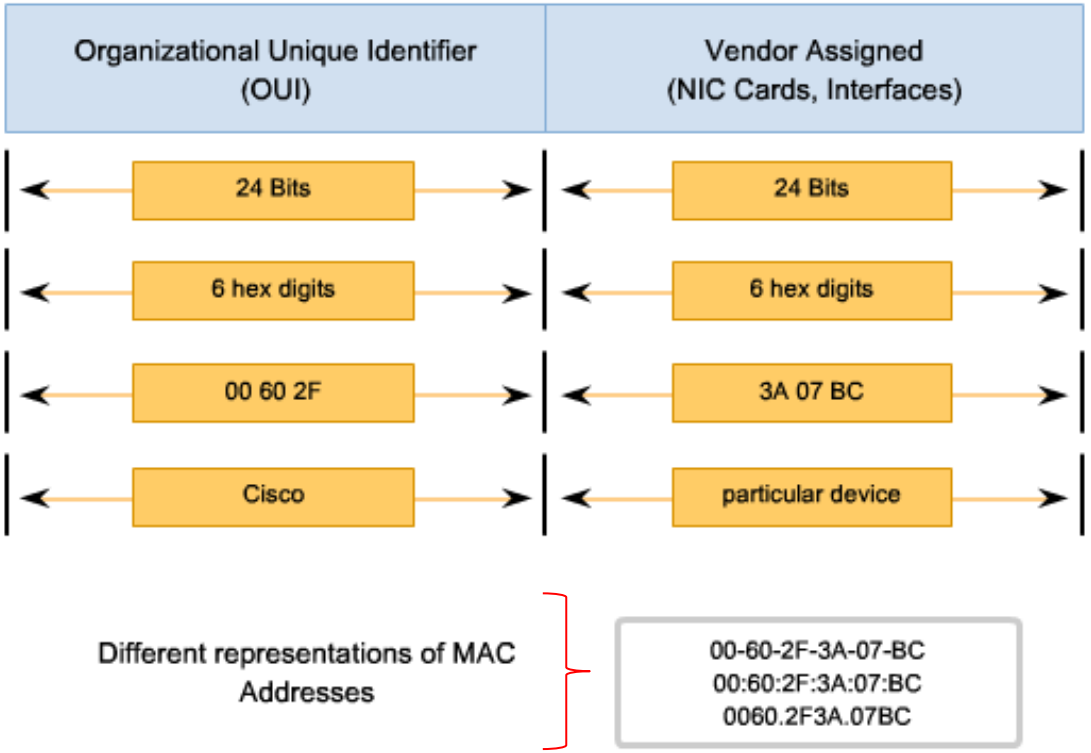
each adapter on LAN has unique *LAN* address



Each interface connected to a LAN has a unique MAC address

LAN / MAC addresses

- Every pieces of Ethernet hardware has the address "*burned in*" to a chip on the hardware.
- The first 3 bytes of an Ethernet address are the *manufacturer's code* and the last 3 bytes are a *unique sequence number*.

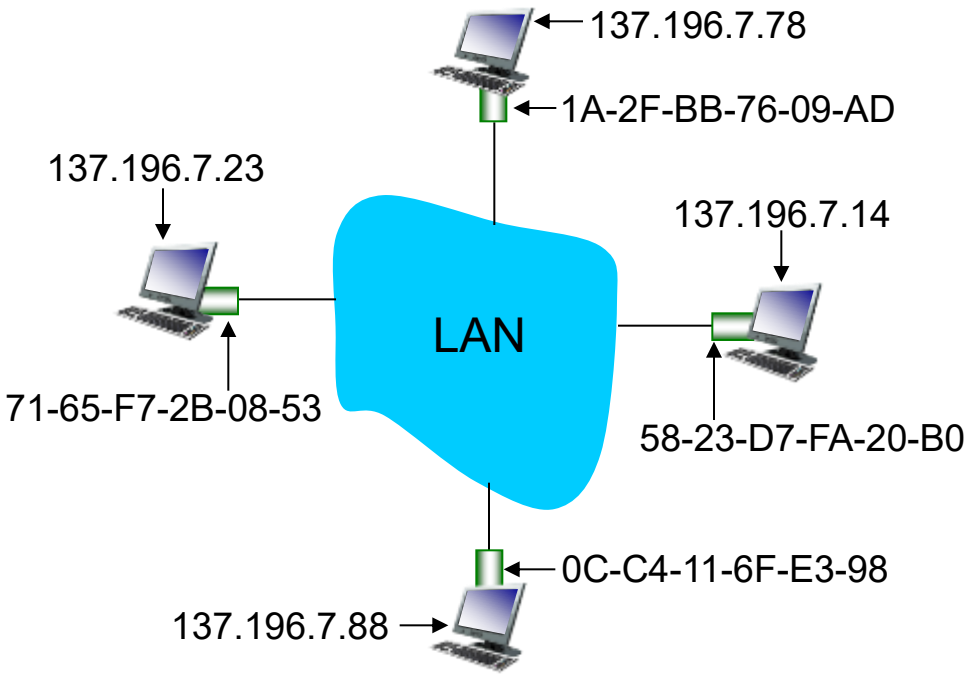


LAN addresses (more)

- MAC address allocation administered by IEEE
- manufacturer buys portion of MAC address space (to assure uniqueness)
- analogy:
  - MAC address: like Social Security Number
  - IP address: like postal address
- MAC flat address ➜ portability
  - can move LAN card from one LAN to another
- IP hierarchical address *not* portable
  - address depends on IP subnet to which node is attached

ARP: address resolution protocol

Question: how to determine interface's MAC address, knowing its IP address?



ARP table: each IP node (host, router) on LAN has table

- IP/MAC address mappings for some LAN nodes:

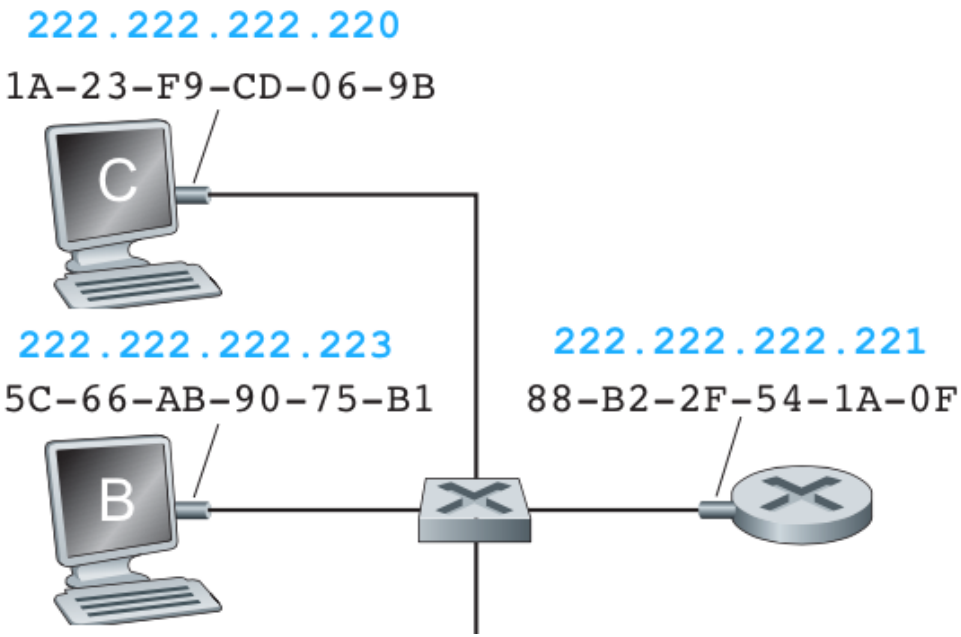
  < IP address; MAC address; TTL>

- TTL (Time To Live): time after which address mapping will be forgotten (typically 20 min)

ARP: address resolution protocol

IP Address	MAC Address	TTL
222.222.222.221	88-B2-2F-54-1A-0F	13:45:00
222.222.222.223	5C-66-AB-90-75-B1	13:52:00

Figure: A possible ARP table in 222.222.222.220

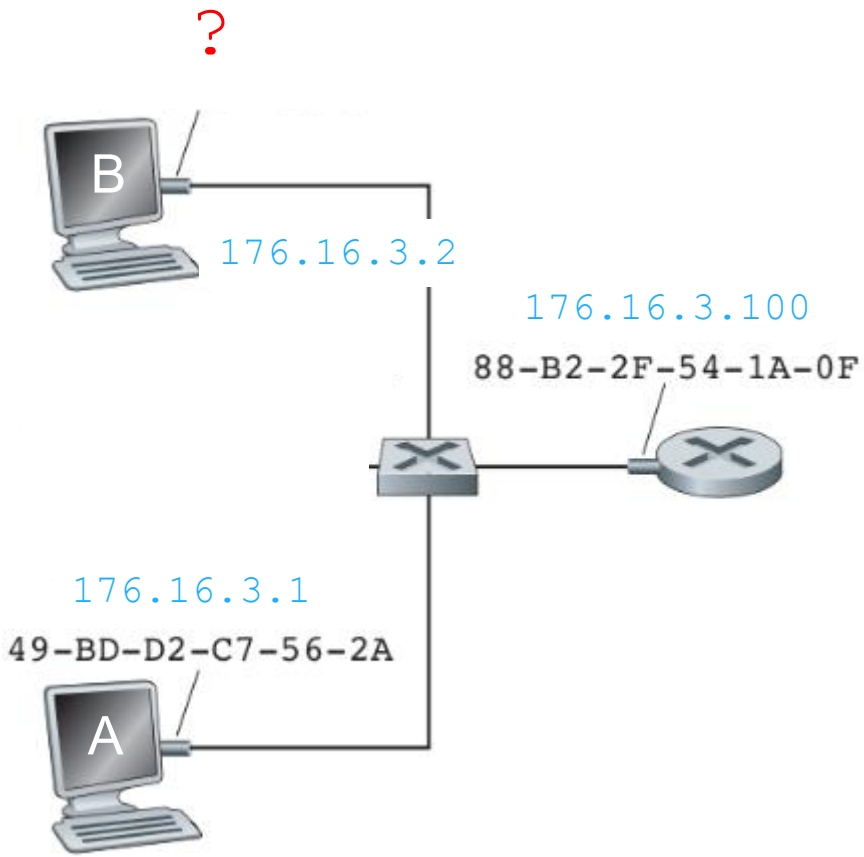


ARP protocol: same LAN

- A wants to send datagram to B
  - B's MAC address not in A's ARP table.
- A broadcasts ARP query packet, containing B's IP address
  - destination MAC address = FF-FF-FF-FF-FF-FF
  - all nodes on LAN receive ARP query
- B receives ARP packet, replies to A with its (B's) MAC address
  - frame sent to A's MAC address (unicast)
- A caches (saves) IP-to-MAC address pair in its ARP table until information becomes old (times out)
  - soft state: information that times out (goes away) unless refreshed
- ARP is "plug-and-play":
  - nodes create their ARP tables *without intervention from net administrator*

ARP protocol: same LAN

- **A** wants to send datagram to **B**
- **B**'s MAC address is not in **A**'s ARP table.



ARP protocol: same LAN

B receives ARP packet, replies to **A** with its (**B**'s) MAC address frame sent to **A**'s MAC address (unicast)

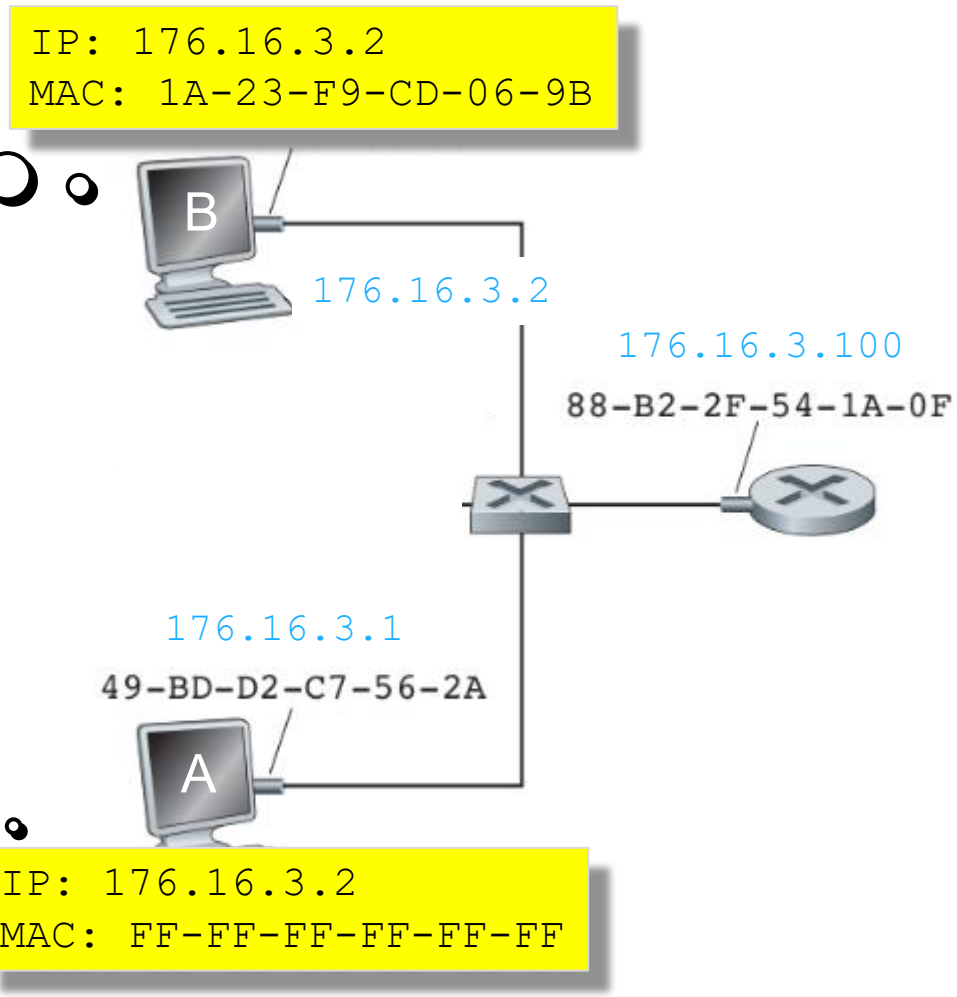
I heard that broadcast.
The message is for me.
Here is my Ethernet address.

A broadcasts ARP query packet, containing;

B's IP address, and MAC address = FF-FF-FF-FF-FF-FF

all nodes on LAN receive ARP query

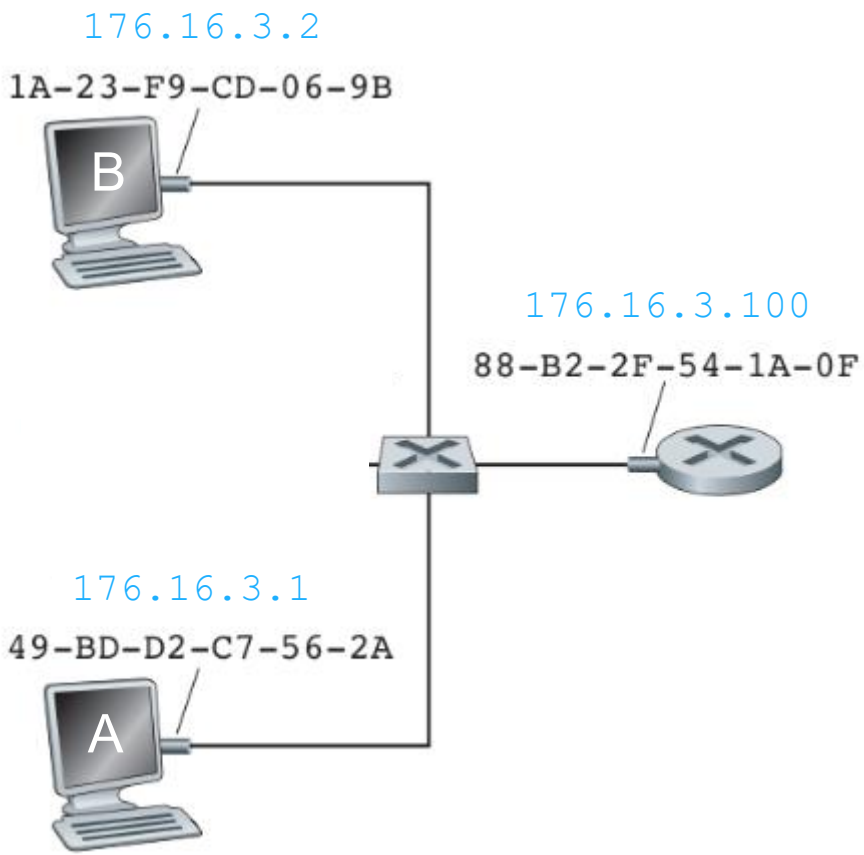
I need the Ethernet address of 176.16.3.2.



ARP protocol: same LAN

- **A** caches (saves) IP-to-MAC address pair in its ARP table until times out

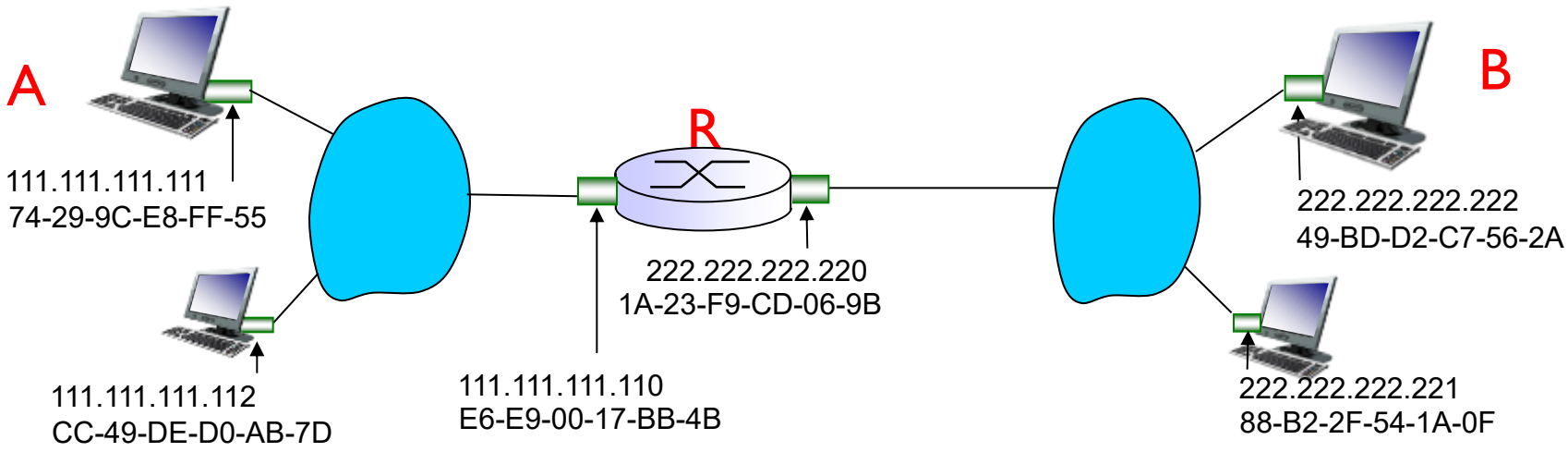
- ARP is "plug-and-play":
  - nodes create their ARP tables without intervention from network administrator



Addressing: routing to another LAN

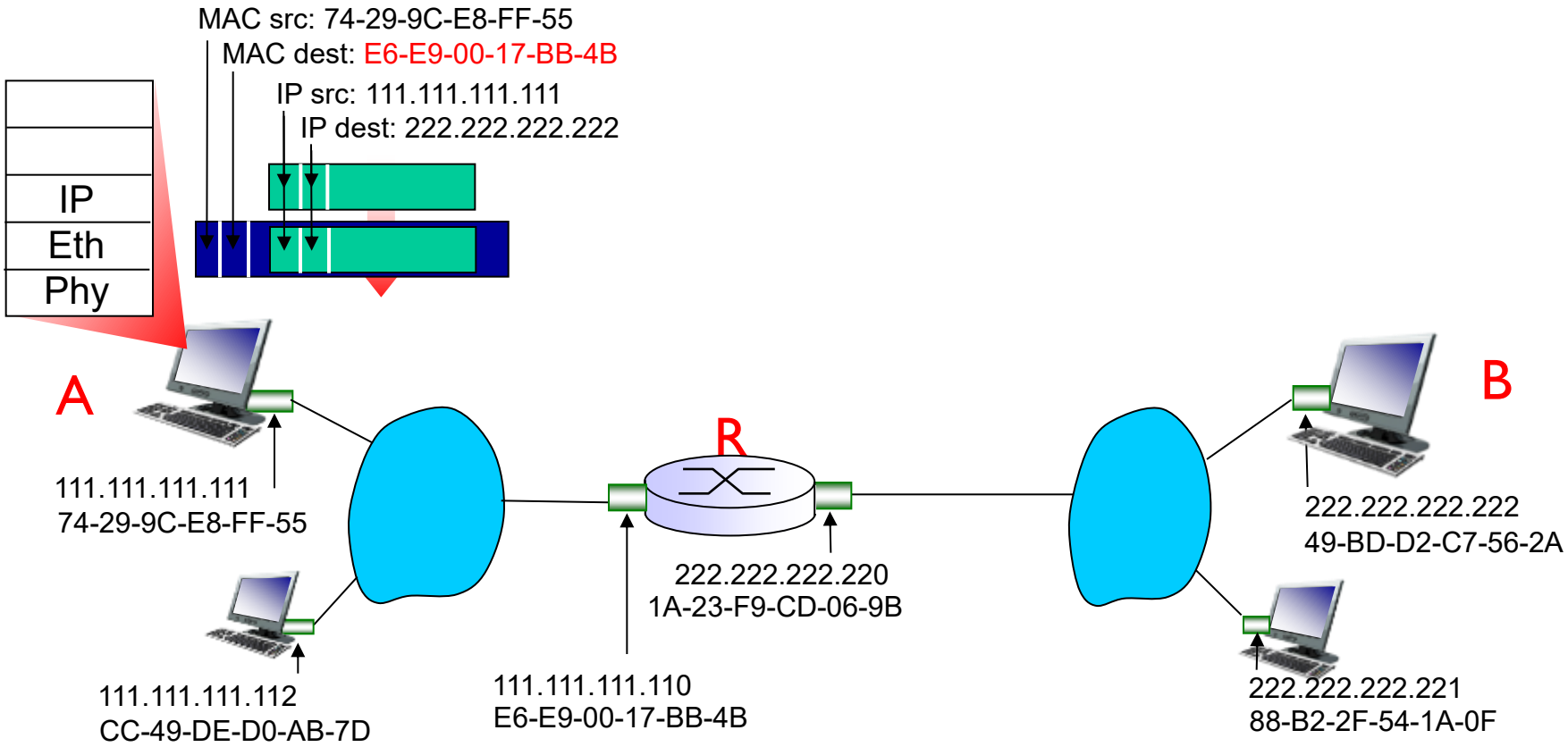
walkthrough: send datagram from A to B via R

- focus on addressing – at IP (datagram) and MAC layer (frame)
- assume A knows B's IP address
- assume A knows IP address of first hop router, R (how?)
- assume A knows R's MAC address (how?)



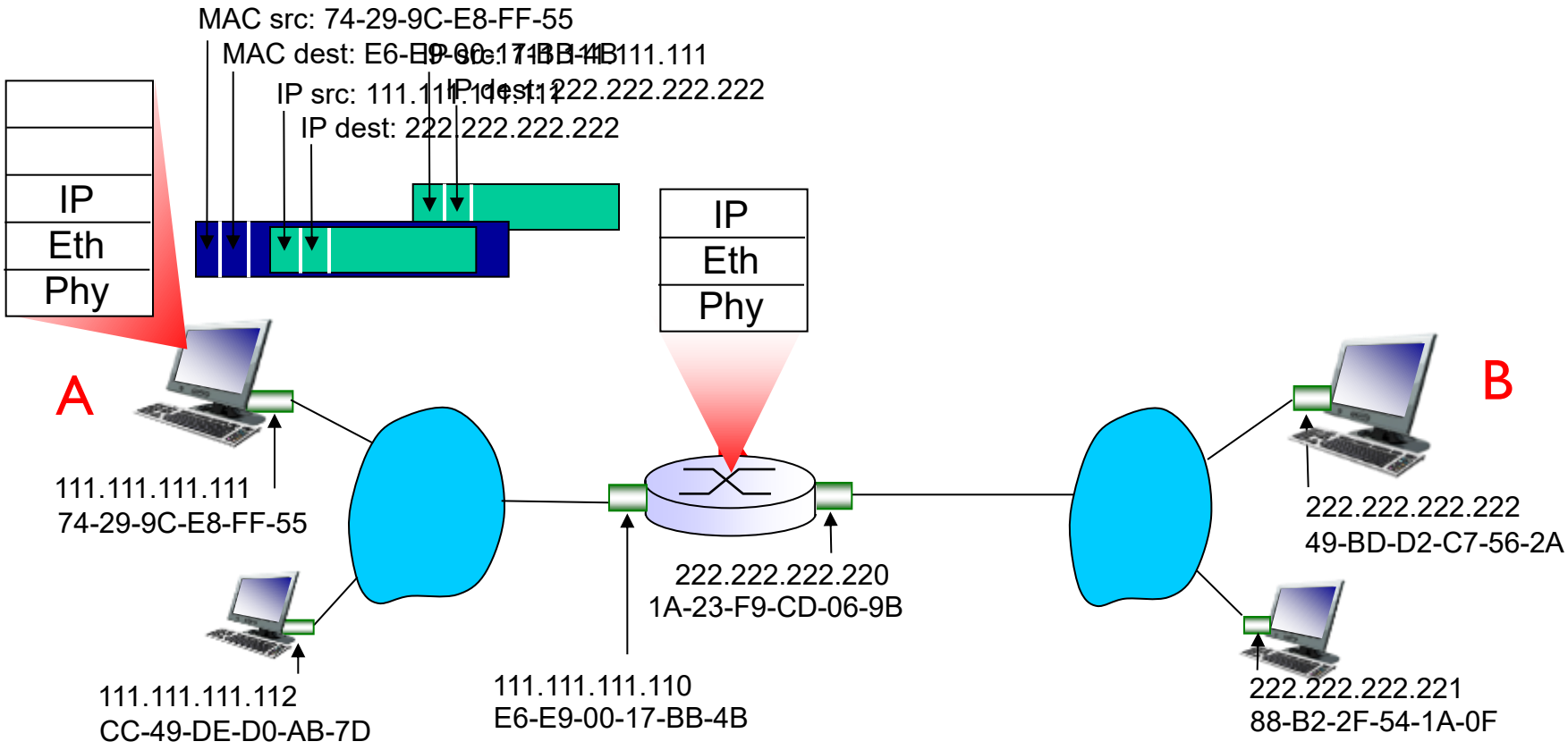
Addressing: routing to another LAN

- A creates IP datagram with IP source A, destination B
- A creates link-layer frame with R's MAC address as destination address, frame contains A-to-B IP datagram



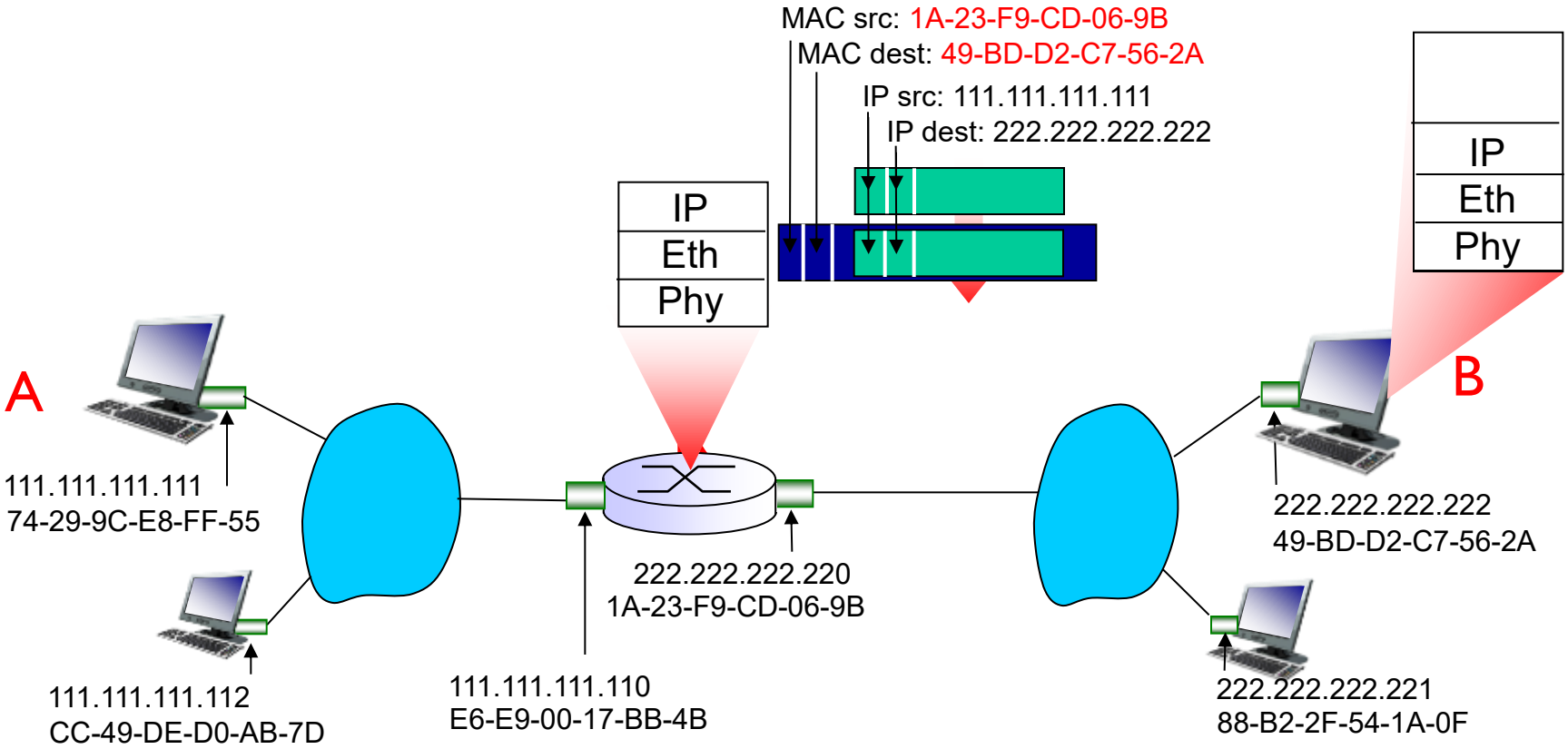
Addressing: routing to another LAN

- frame sent from A to R
- frame received at R, datagram removed, passed up to IP



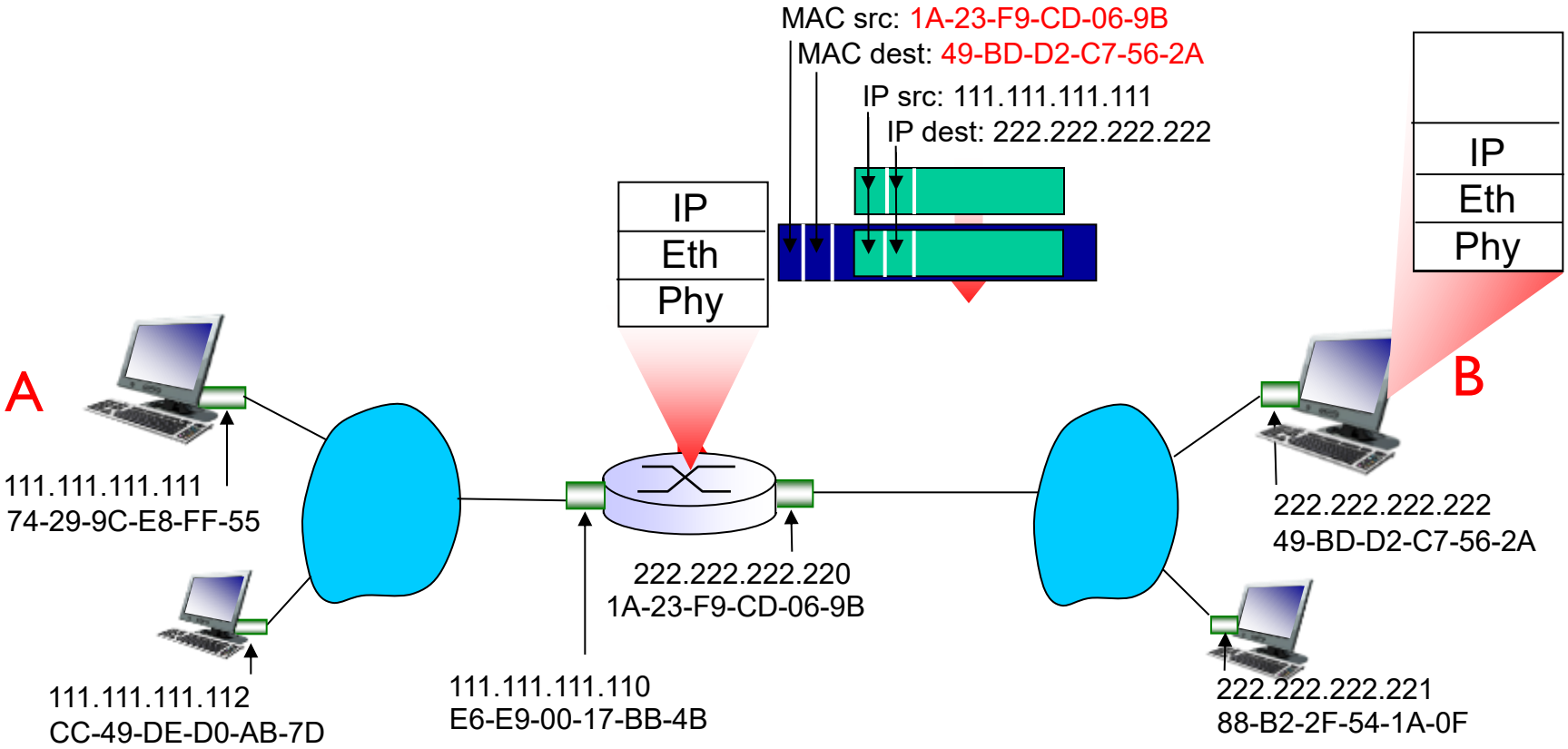
Addressing: routing to another LAN

- R forwards datagram with IP source A, destination B
- R creates link-layer frame with B's MAC address as destination address, frame contains A-to-B IP datagram



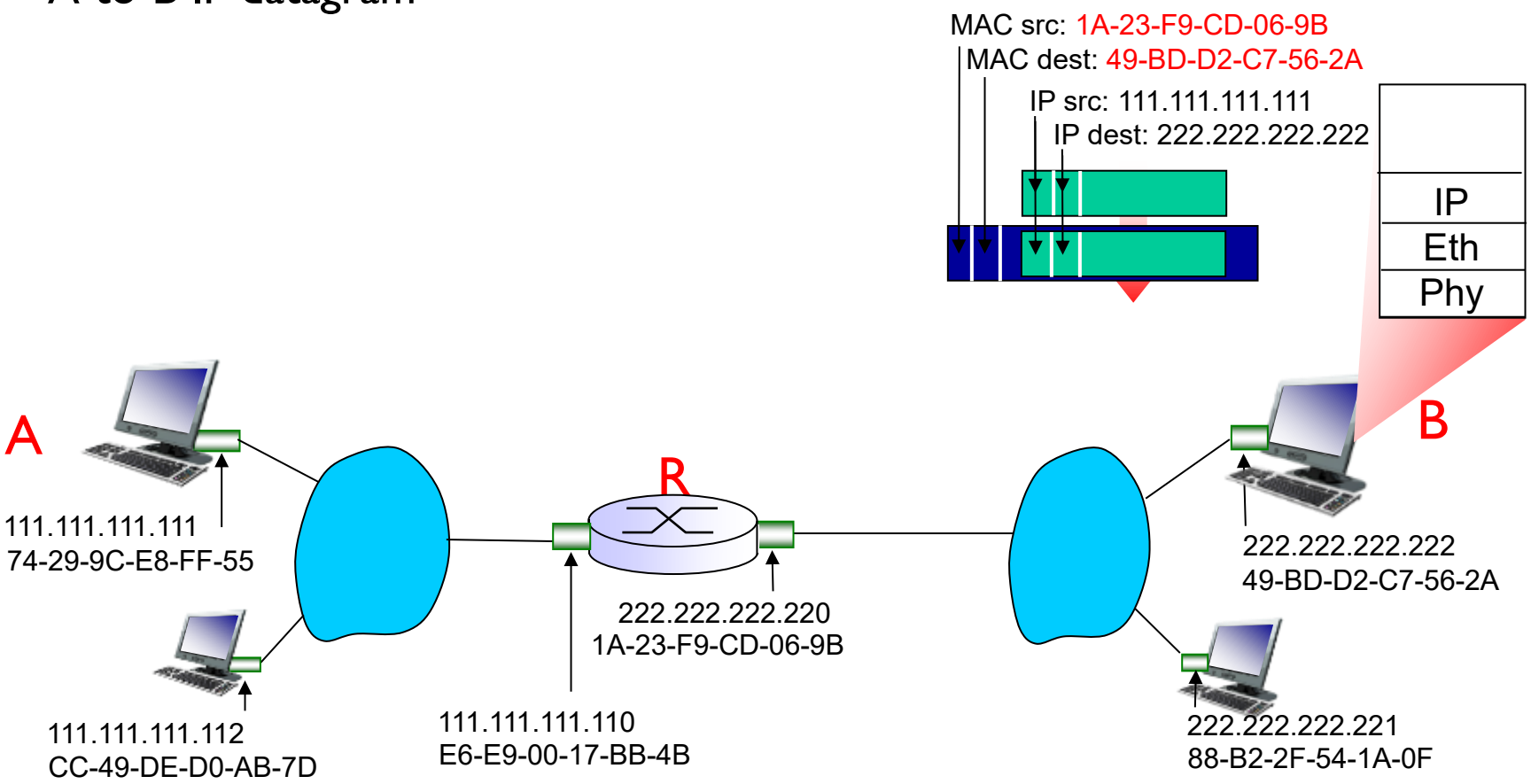
Addressing: routing to another LAN

- R forwards datagram with IP source A, destination B
- R creates link-layer frame with B's MAC address as destination address, frame contains A-to-B IP datagram



Addressing: routing to another LAN

- R forwards datagram with IP source A, destination B
- R creates link-layer frame with B's MAC address as dest, frame contains A-to-B IP datagram



* Check out the online interactive exercises for more examples: http://gaia.cs.umass.edu/kurose_ross/interactive/

Addressing: routing to another LAN

Link-layer frame
src:74-29-9C-E8-FF-55
dest:E6-E9-00-17-BB-4B

IP datagram
src:111.111.111.111
dest:222.222.222.221

Link-layer frame
src:1A-23-F9-CD-06-9B
dest:88-B2-2F-54-1A-0F

IP datagram
src:111.111.111.111
dest:222.222.222.221

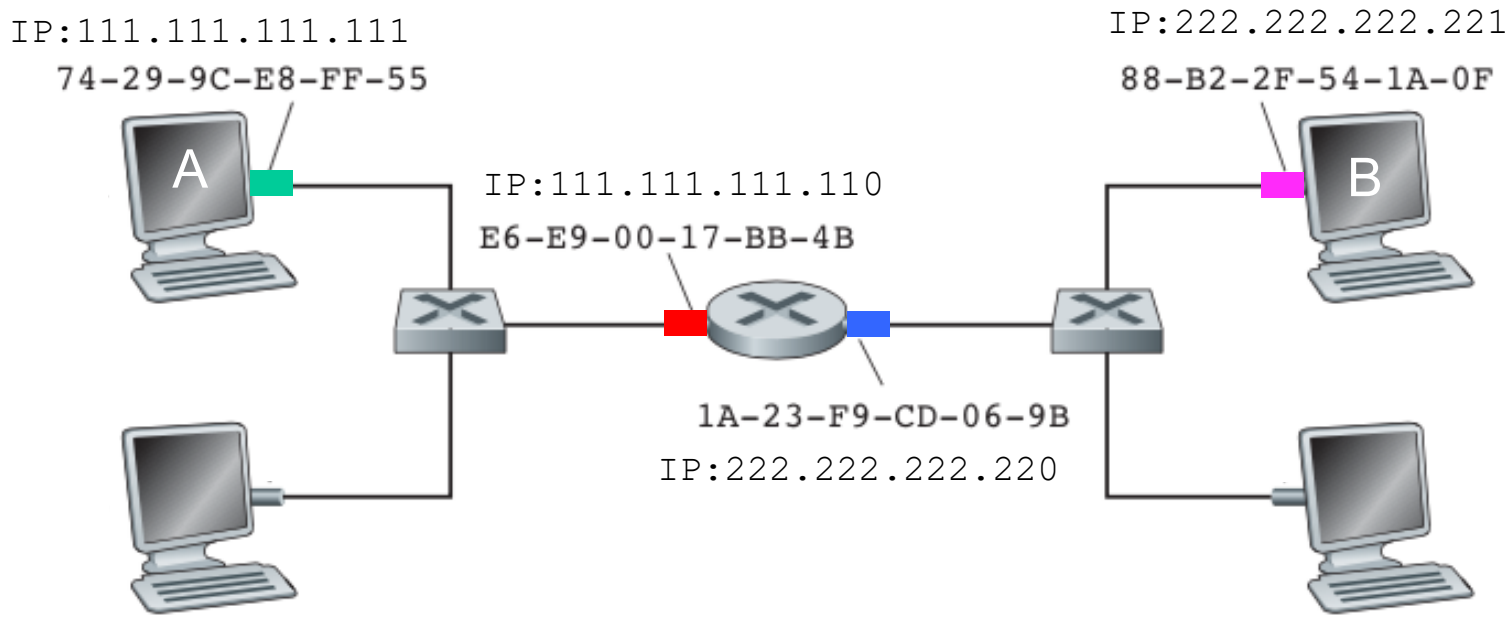


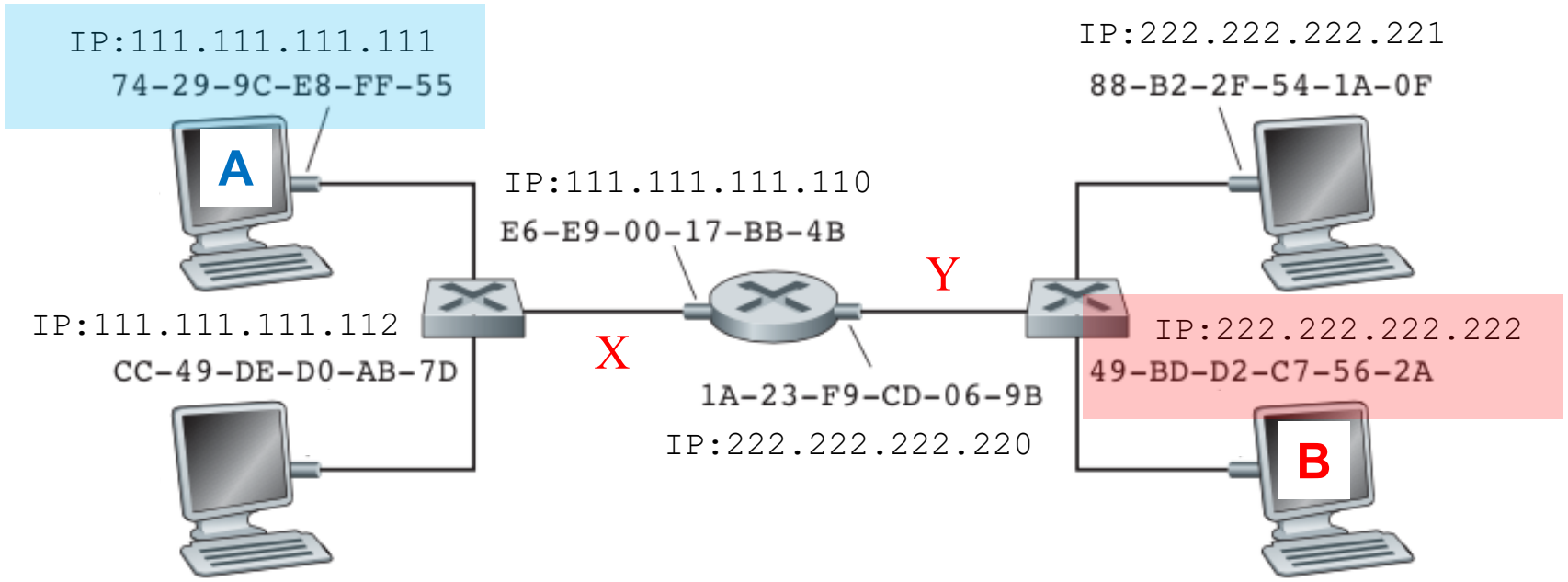
Figure: 2 subnets interconnected by a router.

Exercise

Suppose A sends frame to B.

a) What is the source and destination IP address at X and Y ?

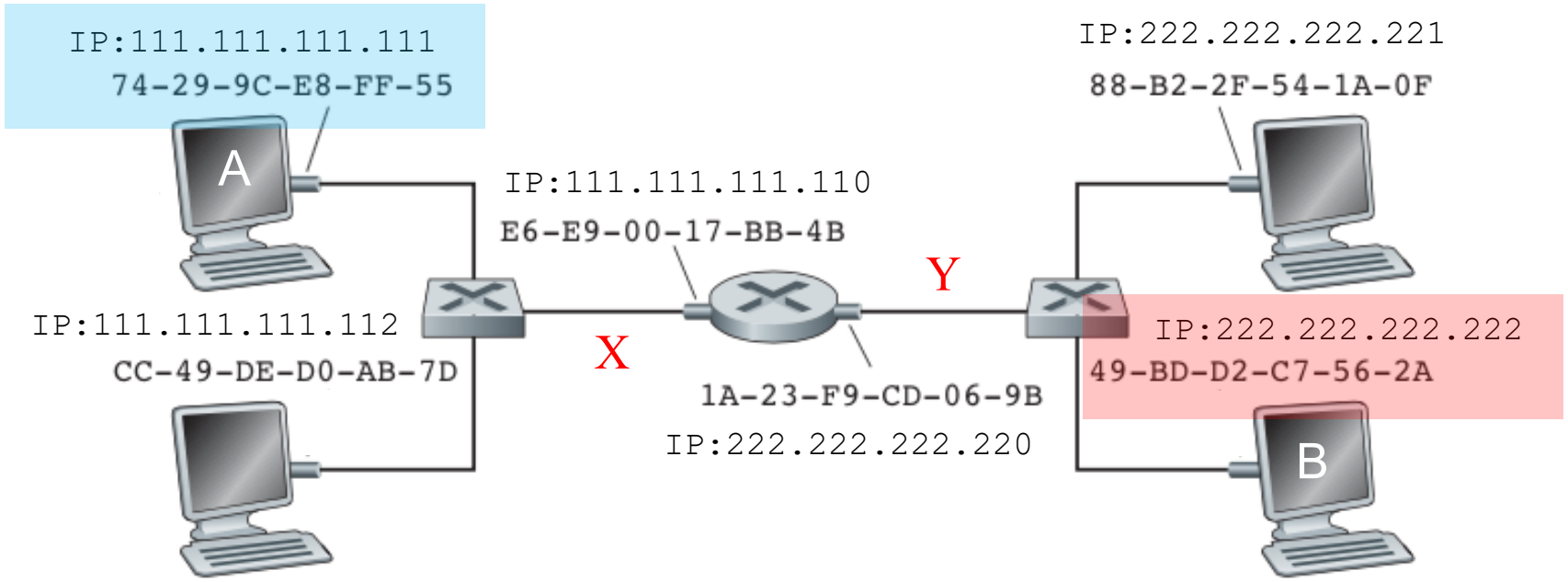
b) What is the source and destination Ethernet address at X and Y ?



Solution

a) What is the source and destination IP address at X and Y ?

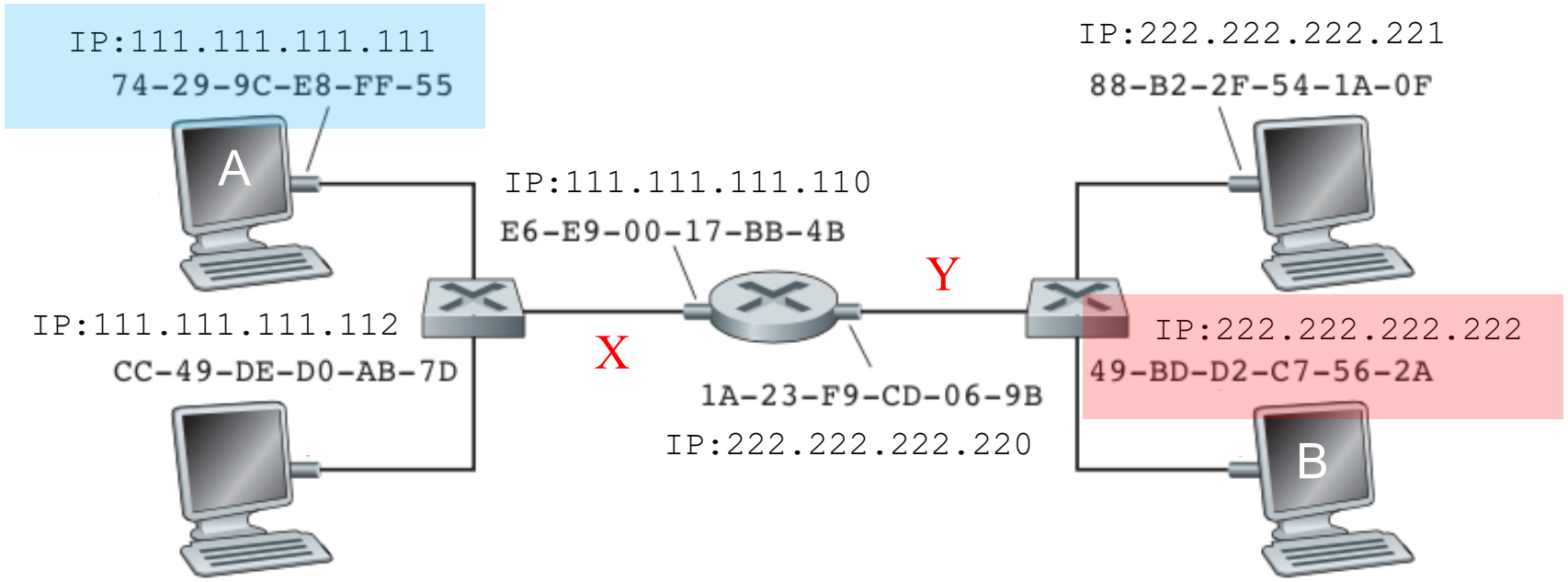
IP address	X	Y
source :	111.111.111.111	111.111.111.111
destination :	222.222.222.222	222.222.222.222



Solution

b) What is the source and destination Ethernet address at X and Y ?

Ethernet address	X	Y
source :	74-29-9C-E8-FF-55	1A-23-F9-CD-06-9B
destination :	E6-E9-00-17-BB-4B	49-BD-D2-C7-56-2A



Link layer, LANs: outline

6.1 introduction, services

6.2 error detection, correction

6.3 multiple access protocols

6.4 LANs

- addressing, ARP
- Ethernet
- switches
- VLANS

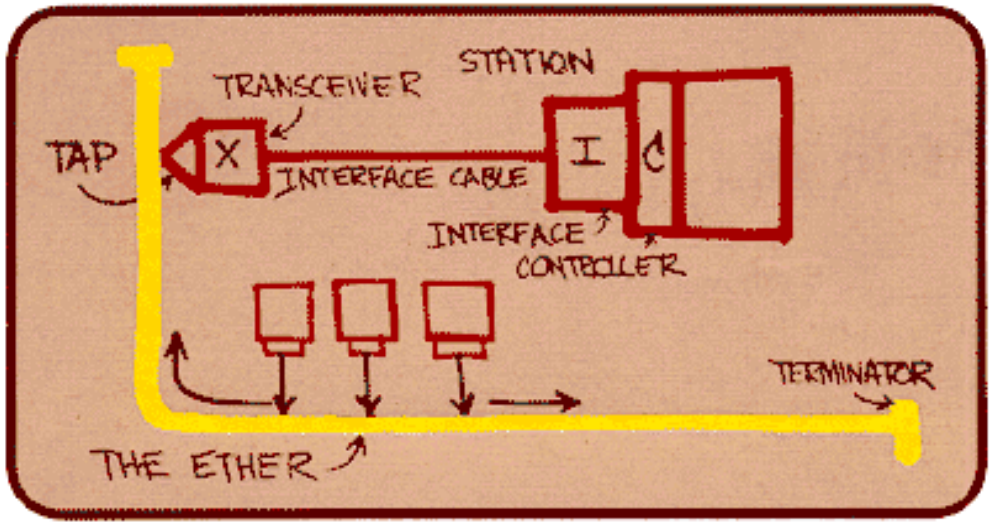
6.5 data center networking

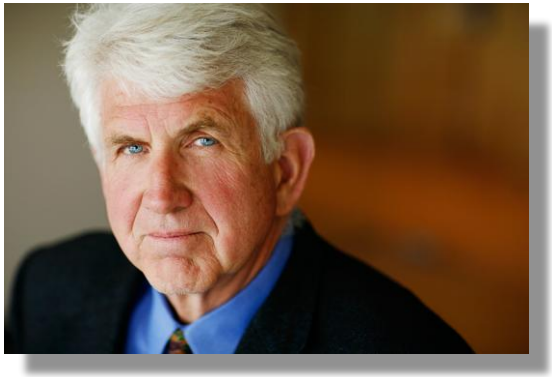
6.6 a day in the life of a web request

Ethernet

"dominant" wired LAN technology:

- single chip, multiple speeds (e.g., Broadcom BCM5761)
- first widely used LAN technology
- simpler, cheap
- kept up with speed race: 10 Mbps – 10 Gbps

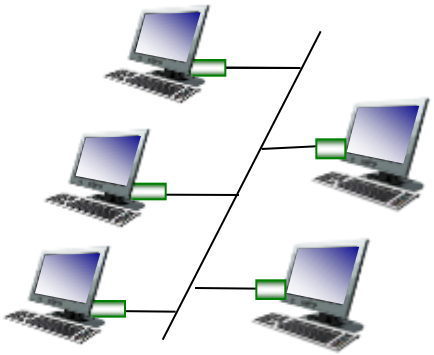




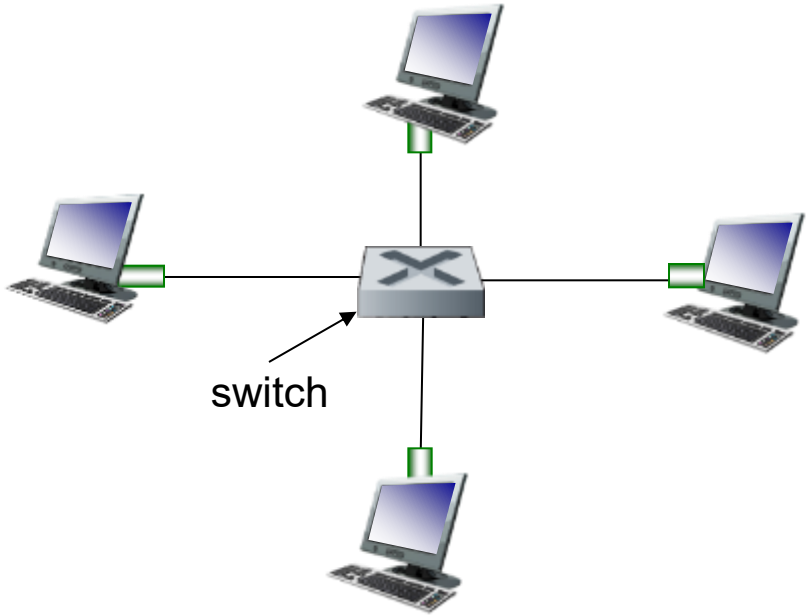
Metcalfe's Ethernet sketch

Ethernet: physical topology

- *bus:* popular through mid 90s
  - all nodes in same collision domain (can collide with each other)
- *star:* prevails today
  - active *switch* in center
  - each "spoke" runs a (separate) Ethernet protocol (nodes do not collide with each other)



bus: coaxial cable



Ethernet frame structure

sending adapter encapsulates IP datagram (or other network layer protocol packet) in Ethernet frame



preamble:

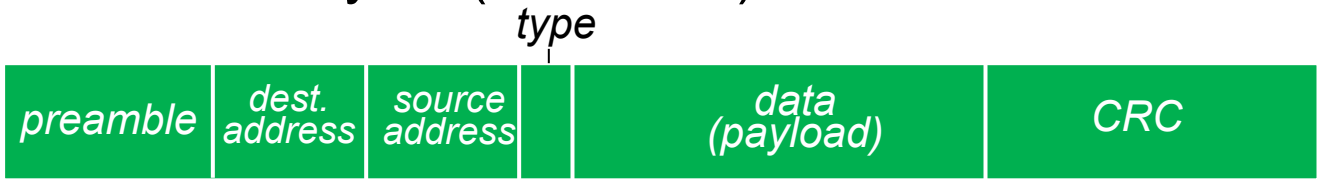
- 7 bytes with pattern 10101010 followed by one byte with pattern 10101011
- used to synchronize receiver, sender clock rates

Ethernet frame structure (more)

- *addresses:* 6 byte source, destination MAC addresses
  - if adapter receives frame with matching destination address, or with broadcast address (e.g. ARP packet), it passes data in frame to network layer protocol
  - otherwise, adapter discards frame
- *type:* indicates higher layer protocol (mostly IP but others possible, e.g., Novell IPX, AppleTalk)
- *CRC:* cyclic redundancy check at receiver
  - error detected: frame is dropped

Data (payload) (46 – 1500bytes)

- Min size: 46 bytes
- Max size: 1500 bytes (MTU size)

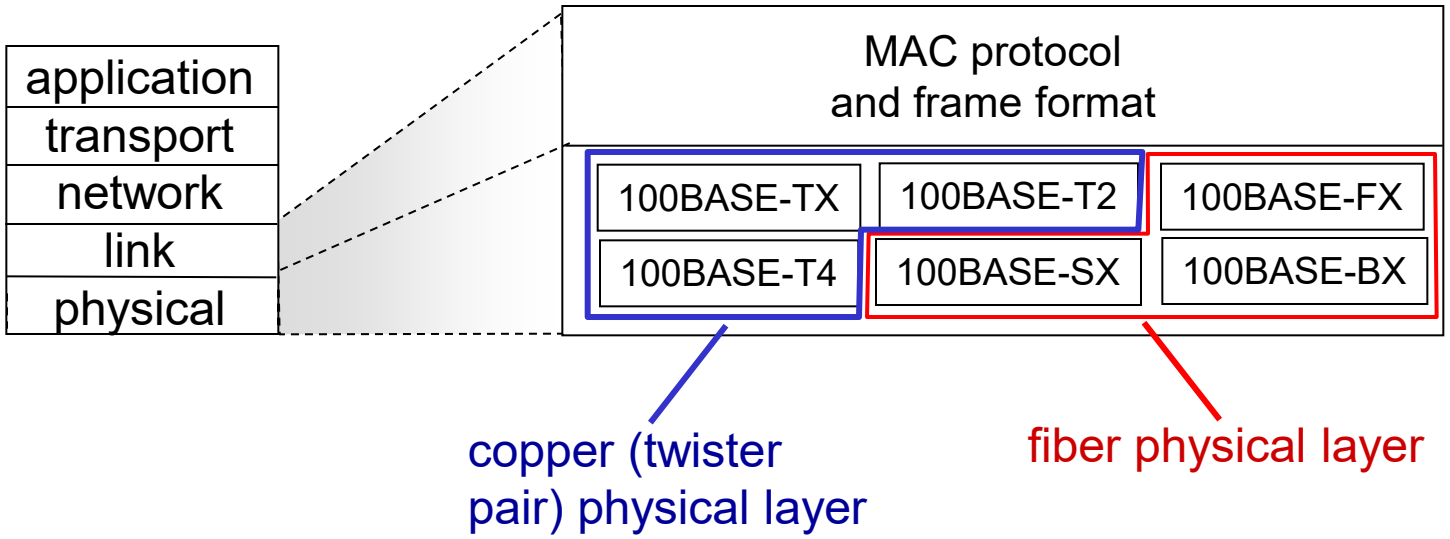


Ethernet: unreliable, connectionless

- *connectionless:* no handshaking between sending and receiving NICs
- *unreliable:* receiving NIC doesn't send acks or nacks to sending NIC
  - data in dropped frames recovered only if initial sender uses higher layer rdt (e.g., TCP), otherwise dropped data lost
- Ethernet's MAC protocol: unslotted *CSMA/CD with binary backoff*

802.3 Ethernet standards: link & physical layers

- *many* different Ethernet standards
  - common MAC protocol and frame format
  - different speeds: 2 Mbps, 10 Mbps, 100 Mbps, 1Gbps, 10 Gbps, 40 Gbps
  - different physical layer media: fiber, copper twister pair cable



Link layer, LANs: outline

6.1 introduction, services

6.2 error detection, correction

6.3 multiple access protocols

6.4 LANs

- addressing, ARP
- Ethernet
- switches
- VLANS

6.5 data center networking

6.6 a day in the life of a web request

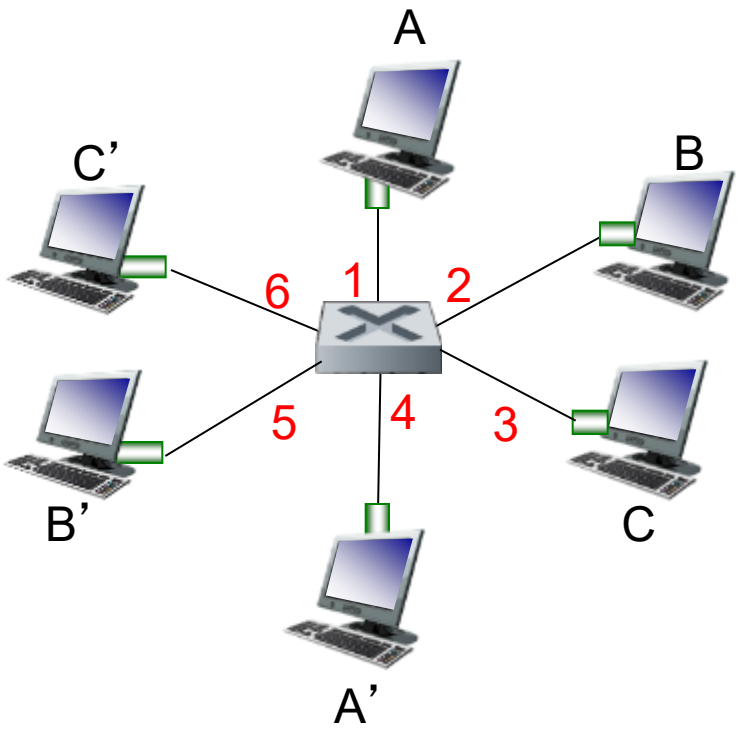
Ethernet switch



- link-layer device: takes an *active* role
  - store, forward Ethernet frames
  - examine incoming frame's MAC address, selectively forward frame to one-or-more outgoing links when frame is to be forwarded on segment, uses CSMA/CD to access segment
- *transparent*
  - hosts are unaware of presence of switches
- *plug-and-play, self-learning*
  - switches do not need to be configured

Switch: *multiple* simultaneous transmissions

- hosts have dedicated, direct connection to switch
- switches buffer packets
- Ethernet protocol used on *each* incoming link, but no collisions; full duplex
  - each link is its own collision domain
- *switching:* A-to-A' and B-to-B' can transmit simultaneously, without collisions



switch with six interfaces (1,2,3,4,5,6)

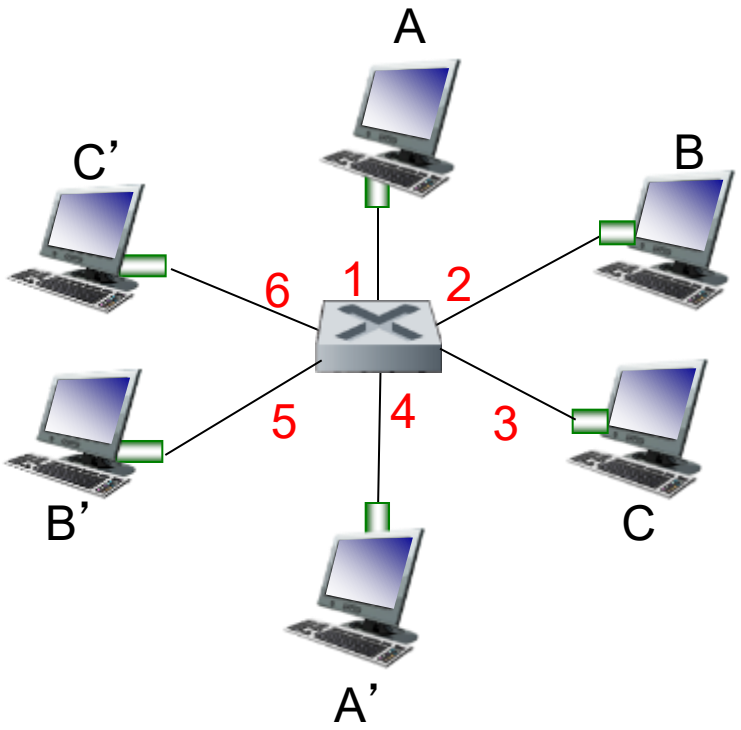
Switch forwarding table

Q: how does switch know A' reachable via interface 4, B' reachable via interface 5?

- A: each switch has a switch table, each entry:
  - (MAC address of host, interface to reach host, time stamp)
  - looks like a routing table!

Q: how are entries created, maintained in switch table?

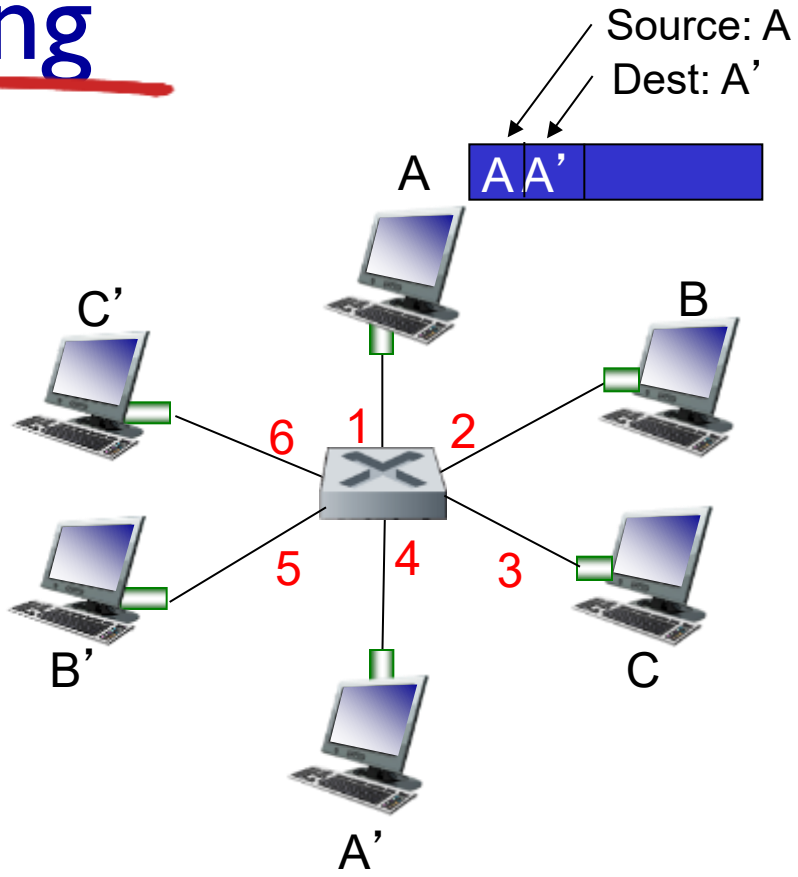
- something like a routing protocol?



switch with six interfaces (1,2,3,4,5,6)

Switch: self-learning

- switch *learns* which hosts can be reached through which interfaces
  - when frame received, switch "learns" location of sender: incoming LAN segment
  - records sender/location pair in switch table



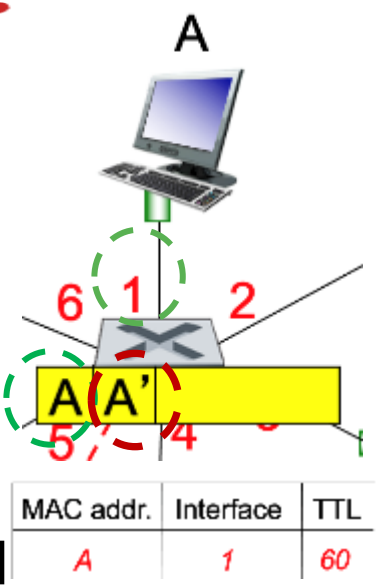
MAC addr	interface	TTL
A	*1*	*60*

Switch table (initially empty)

Switch: frame filtering/forwarding

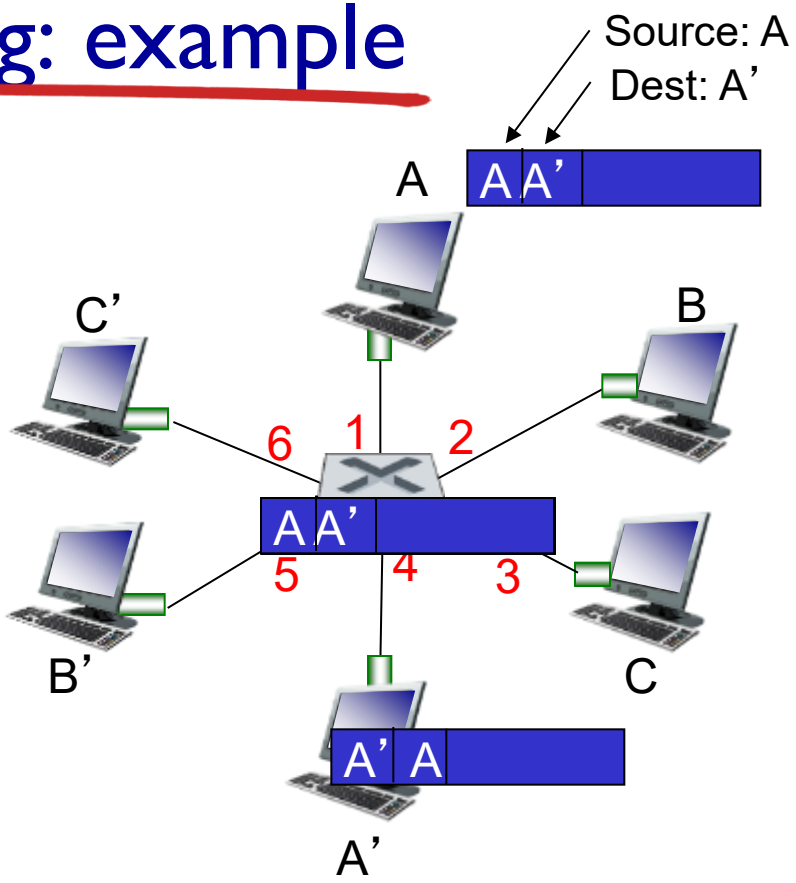
when frame received at switch:

1. record incoming link, MAC address of sending host
2. index switch table using MAC destination address
3. if entry found for destination
   then {
   if destination on segment from which frame arrived
   then drop frame
   else forward frame on interface indicated by entry
   }
   else flood /* forward on all interfaces except arriving interface */



Self-learning, forwarding: example

- frame destination, A', location unknown: *flood*
- destination A location known: selectively send on just one link

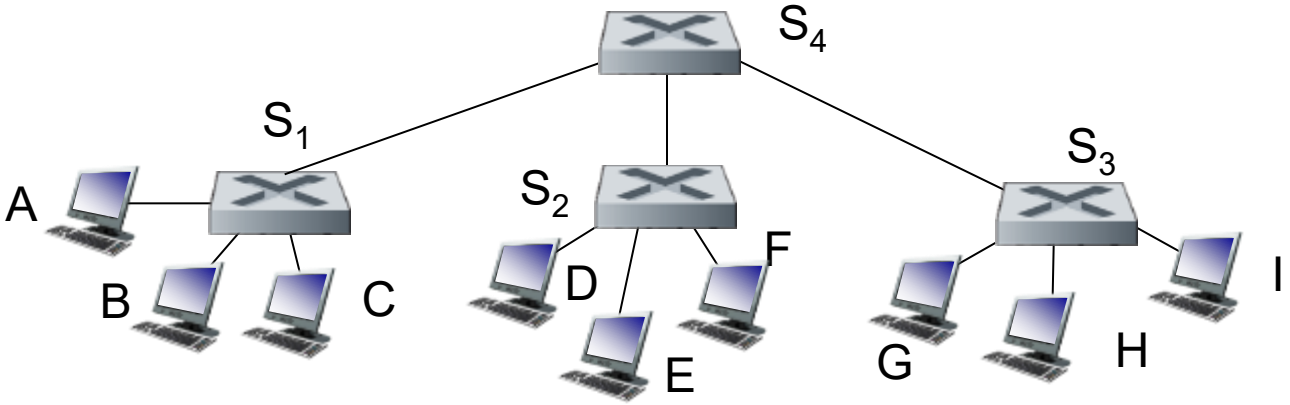


MAC addr	interface	TTL
A	*1*	*60*
A'	*4*	*60*

switch table (initially empty)

Interconnecting switches

self-learning switches can be connected together:



Q: sending from A to G - how does S_1 know to forward frame destined to G via S_4 and S_3?

- *A:* self learning! (works exactly the same as in single-switch case!)

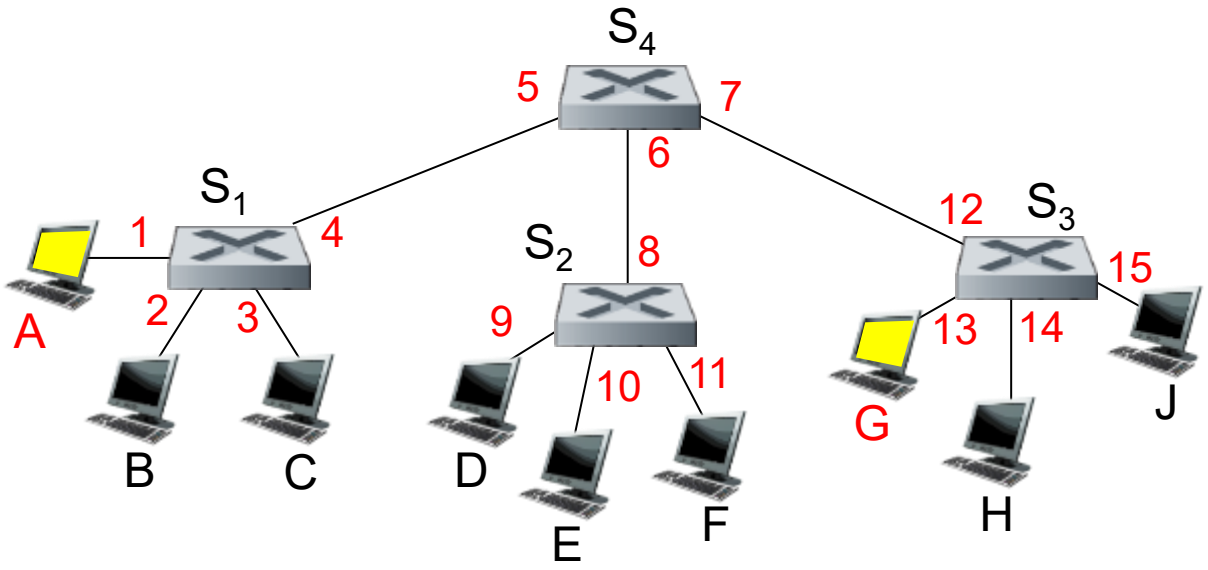
Exercise

Suppose A sends frame to G, G responds to A.

Show the switch tables in S_1, S_3, S_4

Solution:

self learning! (works exactly the same as in single-switch case!)



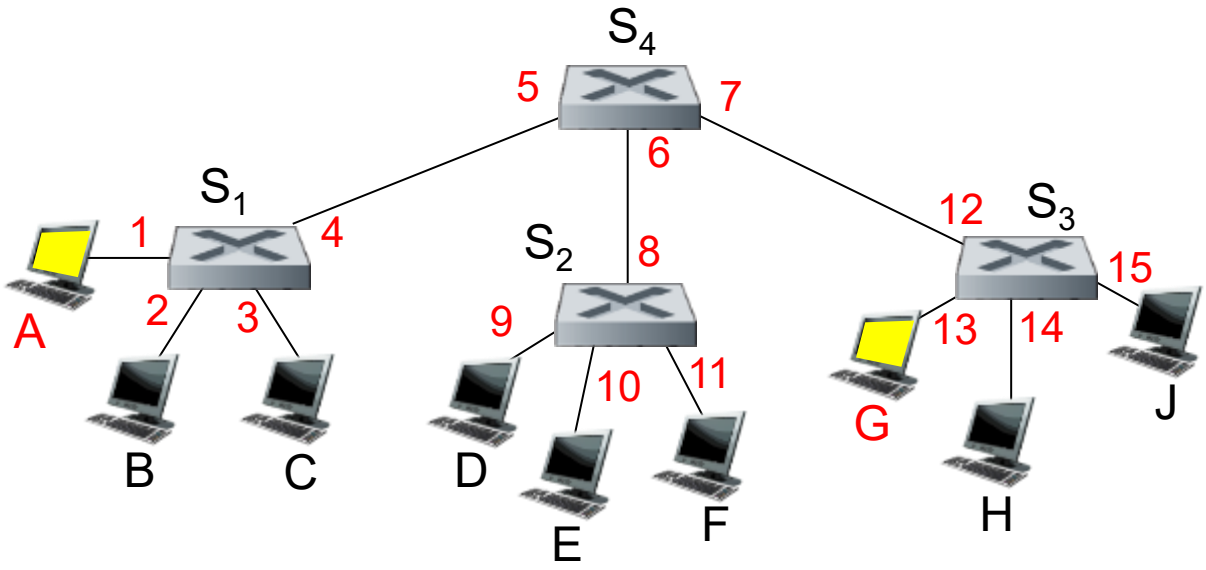
Solution

Suppose A sends frame to G, G responds to A.

Show the switch tables in S_1, S_3, S_4

Solution:

self learning! (works exactly the same as in single-switch case!)



Switch table S_1:

Mac addr.	Interface
A	1
G	4

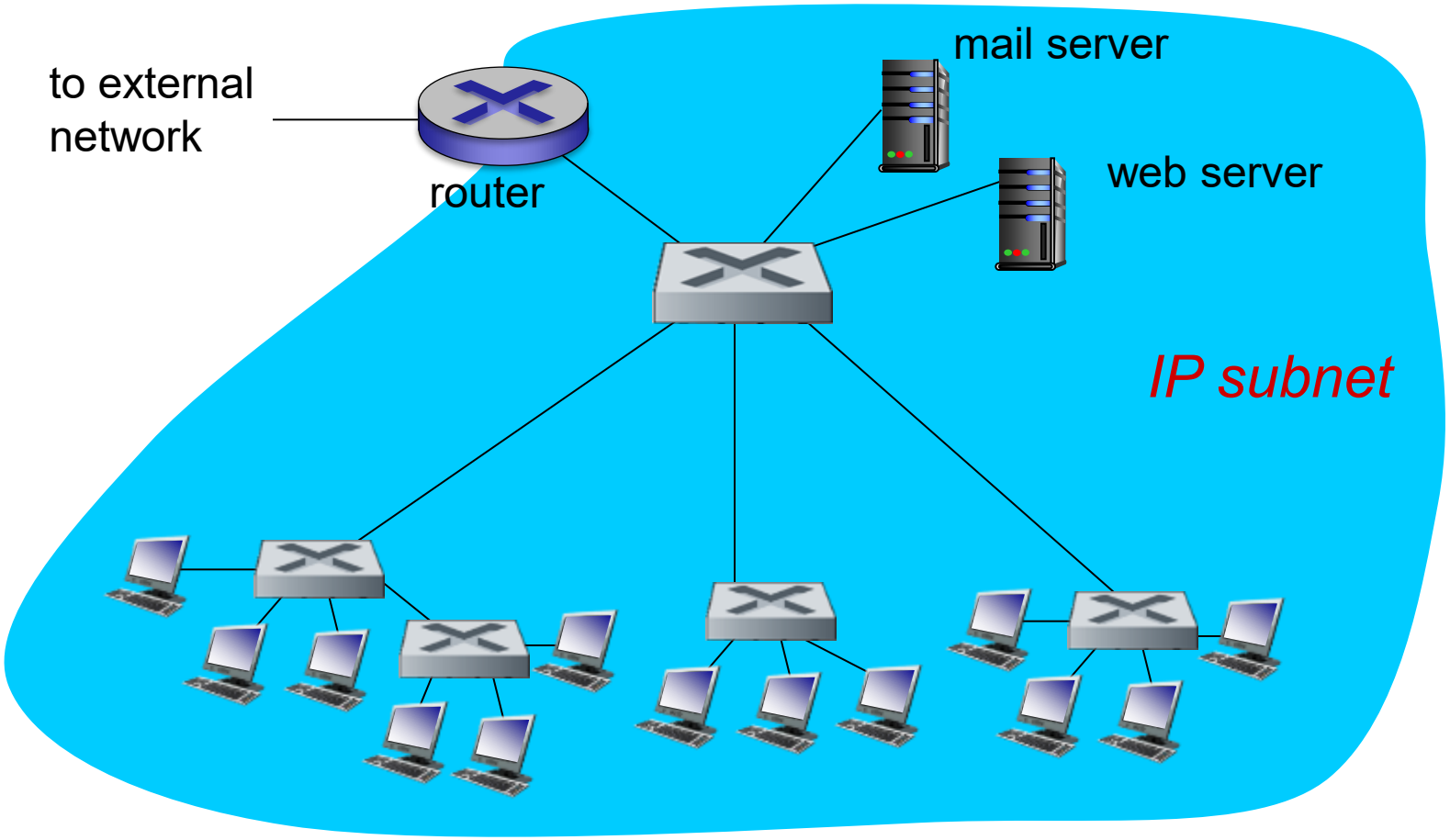
Switch table S_4:

Mac addr.	Interface
A	5
G	7

Switch table S_3:

Mac addr.	Interface
A	12
G	13

Institutional network



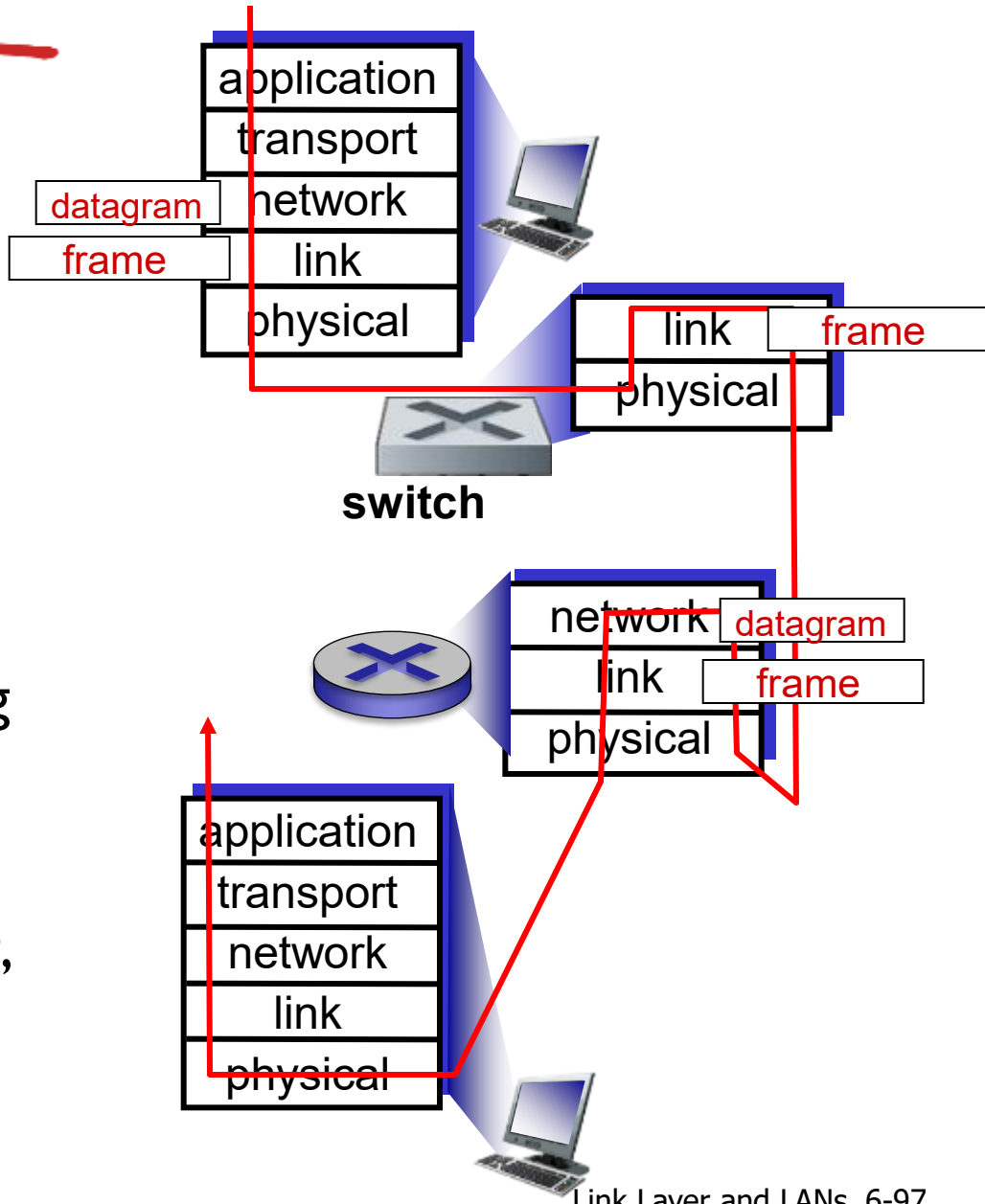
Switches vs. routers

both are store-and-forward:

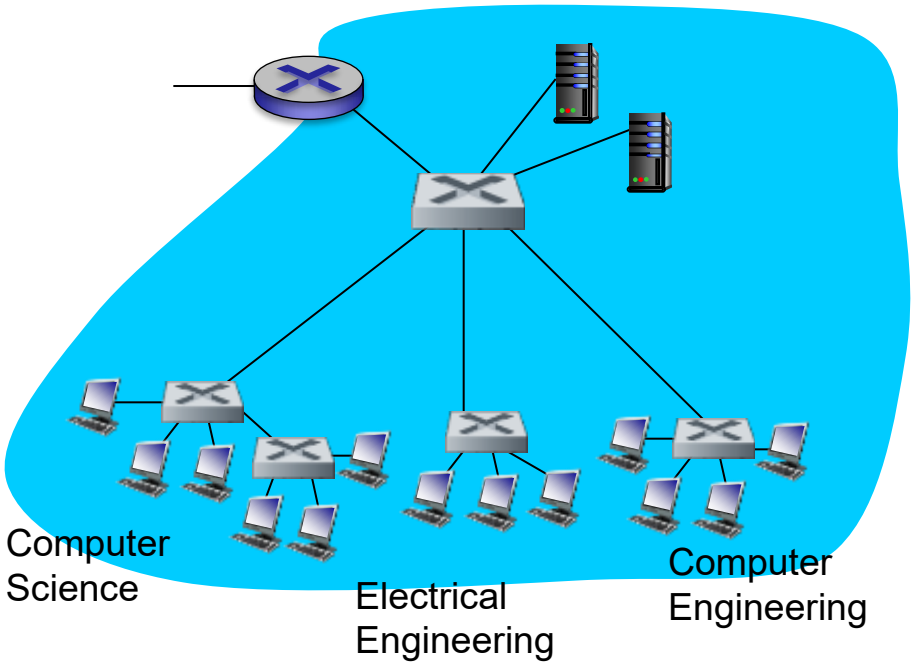
- *routers:* network-layer devices (examine network-layer headers)
- *switches*: link-layer devices (examine link-layer headers)

both have forwarding tables:

- *routers:* compute tables using routing algorithms, IP addresses
- *switches:* learn forwarding table using flooding, learning, MAC addresses



VLANs: motivation



consider:

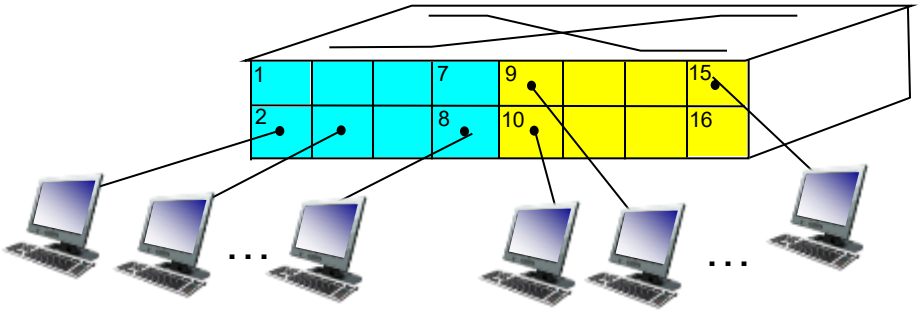
- CS user moves office to EE, but wants connect to CS switch?
- single broadcast domain:
  - all layer-2 broadcast traffic (ARP, DHCP, unknown location of destination MAC address) must cross entire LAN
  - security/privacy, efficiency issues

VLANs

Virtual Local Area Network

switch(es) supporting VLAN capabilities can be configured to define multiple ***virtual*** LANS over single physical LAN infrastructure.

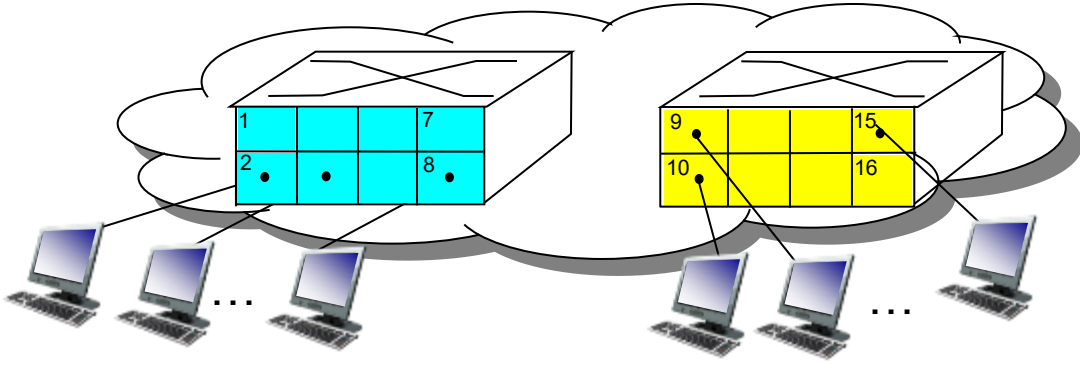
port-based VLAN: switch ports grouped (by switch management software) so that *single* physical switch ……



Electrical Engineering (VLAN ports 1-8)

Computer Science (VLAN ports 9-15)

… operates as multiple virtual switches

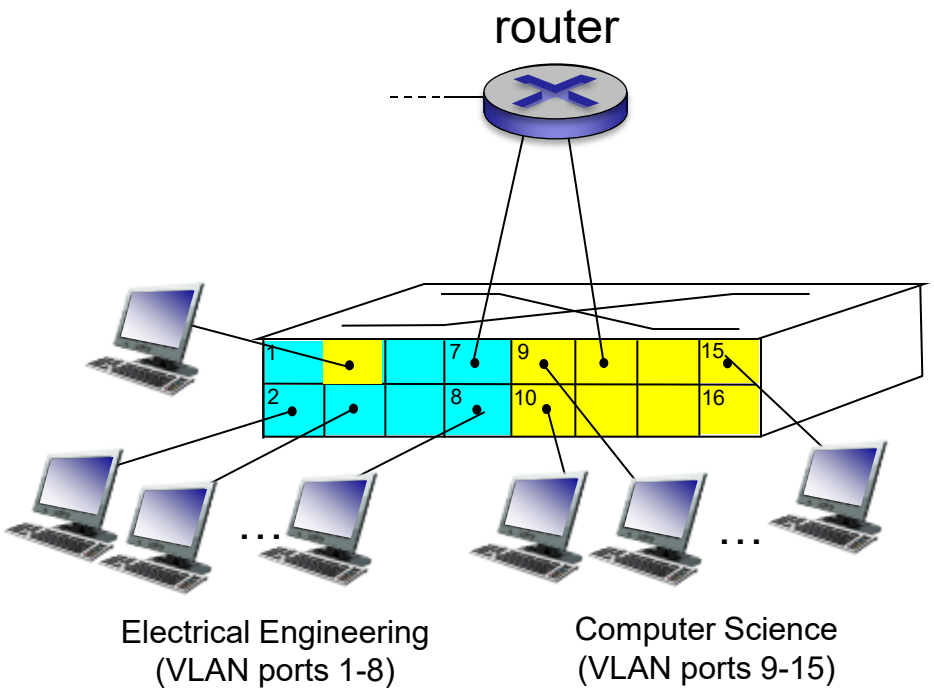


Electrical Engineering (VLAN ports 1-8)

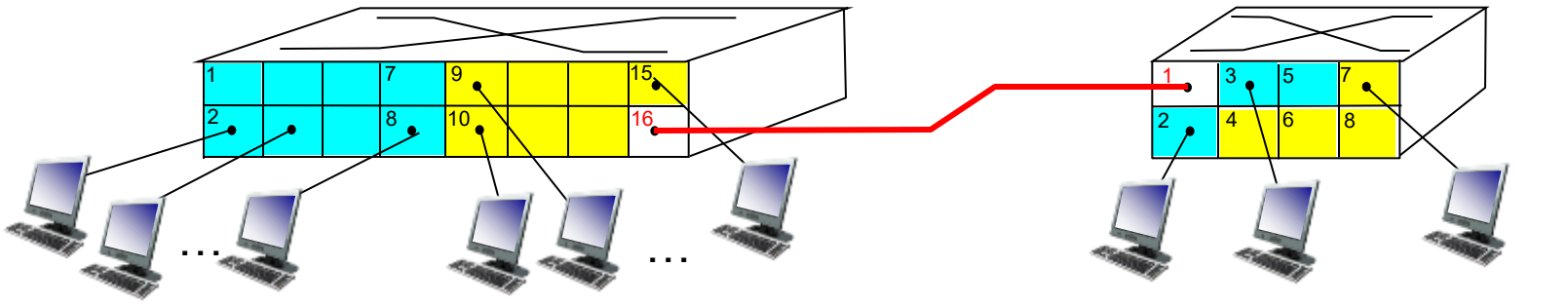
Computer Science (VLAN ports 9-16)

Port-based VLAN

- *traffic isolation:* frames to/from ports 1-8 can *only* reach ports 1-8
  - can also define VLAN based on MAC addresses of endpoints, rather than switch port
- dynamic membership: ports can be dynamically assigned among VLANs
- forwarding between VLANS: done via routing (just as with separate switches)
  - in practice vendors sell combined switches plus routers

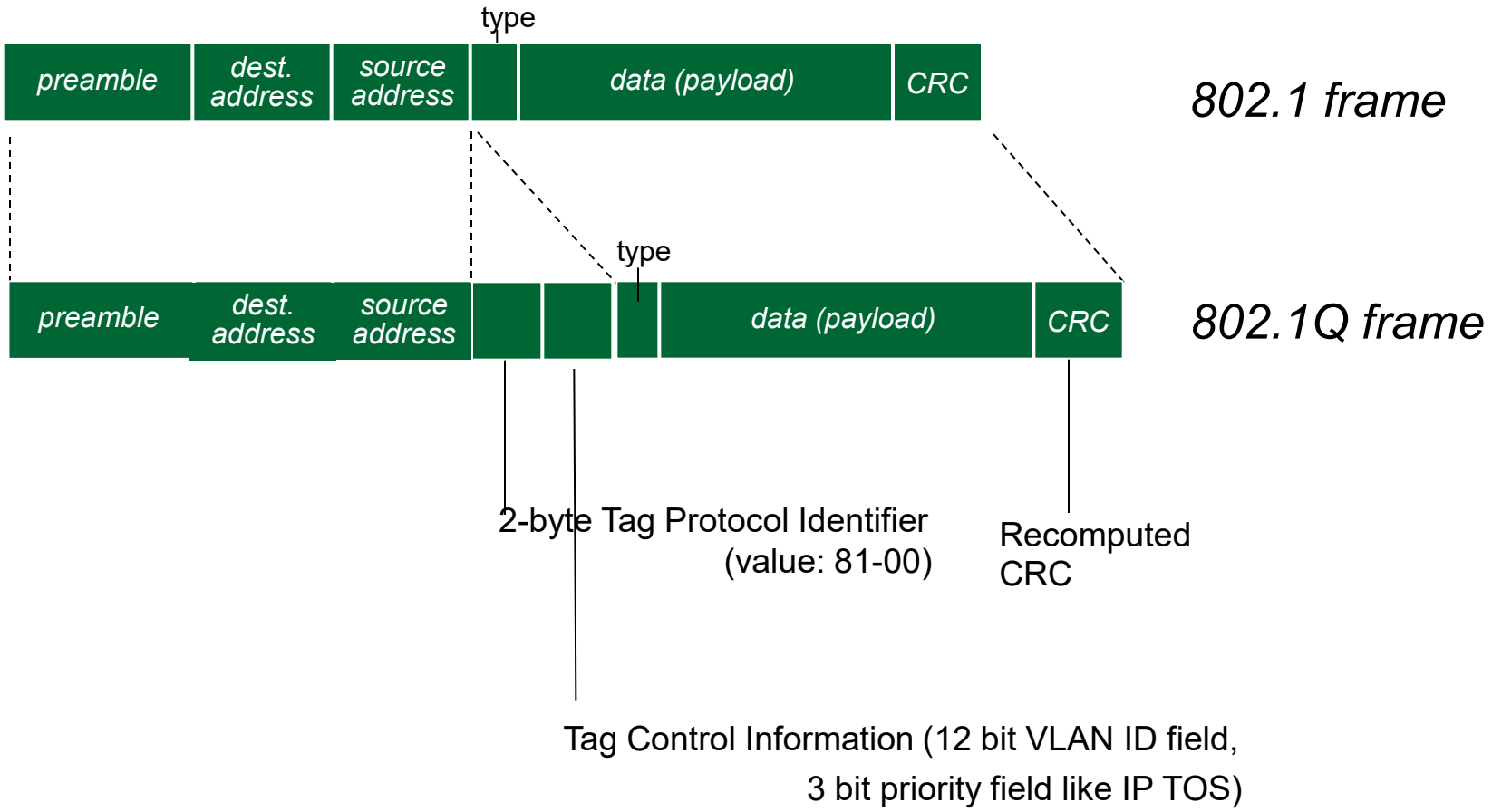


VLANS spanning multiple switches



- *trunk port:* carries frames between VLANS defined over multiple physical switches
  - frames forwarded within VLAN between switches can't be vanilla 802.1 frames (must carry VLAN ID info)
  - 802.1q protocol adds/removed additional header fields for frames forwarded between trunk ports

802.1Q VLAN frame format



Link layer, LANs: outline

6.1 introduction, services

6.2 error detection, correction

6.3 multiple access protocols

6.4 LANs

- addressing, ARP
- Ethernet
- switches
- VLANS

6.5 data center networking

6.6 a day in the life of a web request

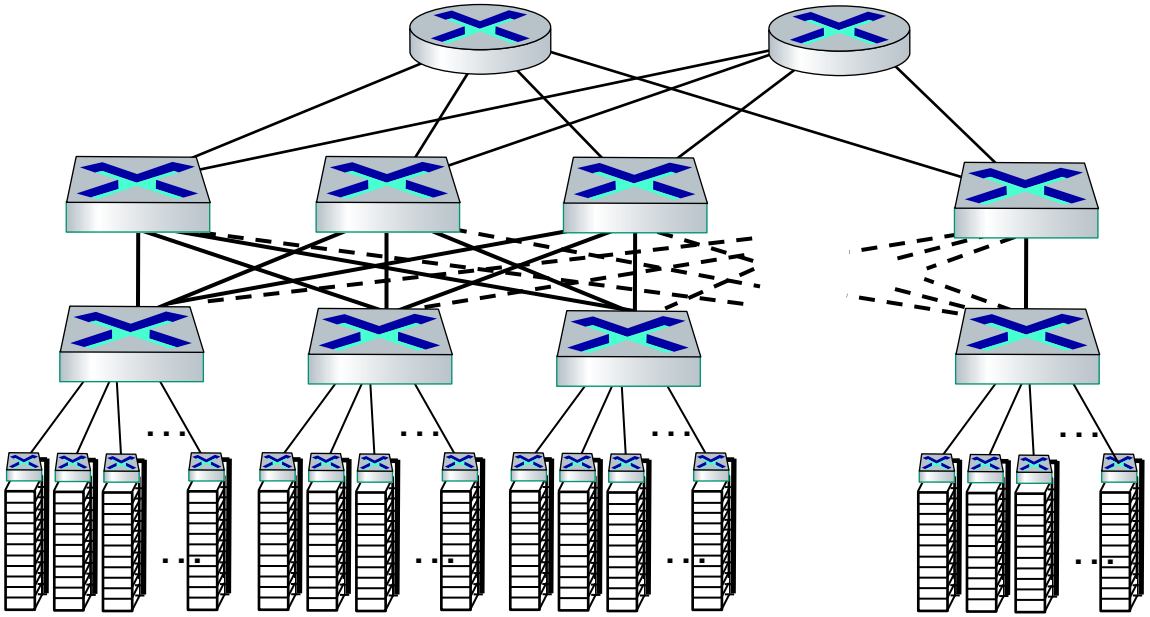
Data center networks

- 10's to 100's of thousands of hosts, often closely coupled, in close proximity:
  - e-business (e.g. Amazon)
  - content-servers (e.g., YouTube, Akamai, Apple, Microsoft)
  - search engines, data mining (e.g., Google)
- challenges:
  - multiple applications, each serving massive numbers of clients
  - managing/balancing load, avoiding processing, networking, data bottlenecks



Inside a 40-ft Microsoft container, Chicago data center

Datacenter networks: network elements



Border routers
- connections outside datacenter

Tier-1 switches
- connecting to ~16 T-2s below

Tier-2 switches
- connecting to ~16 TORs below

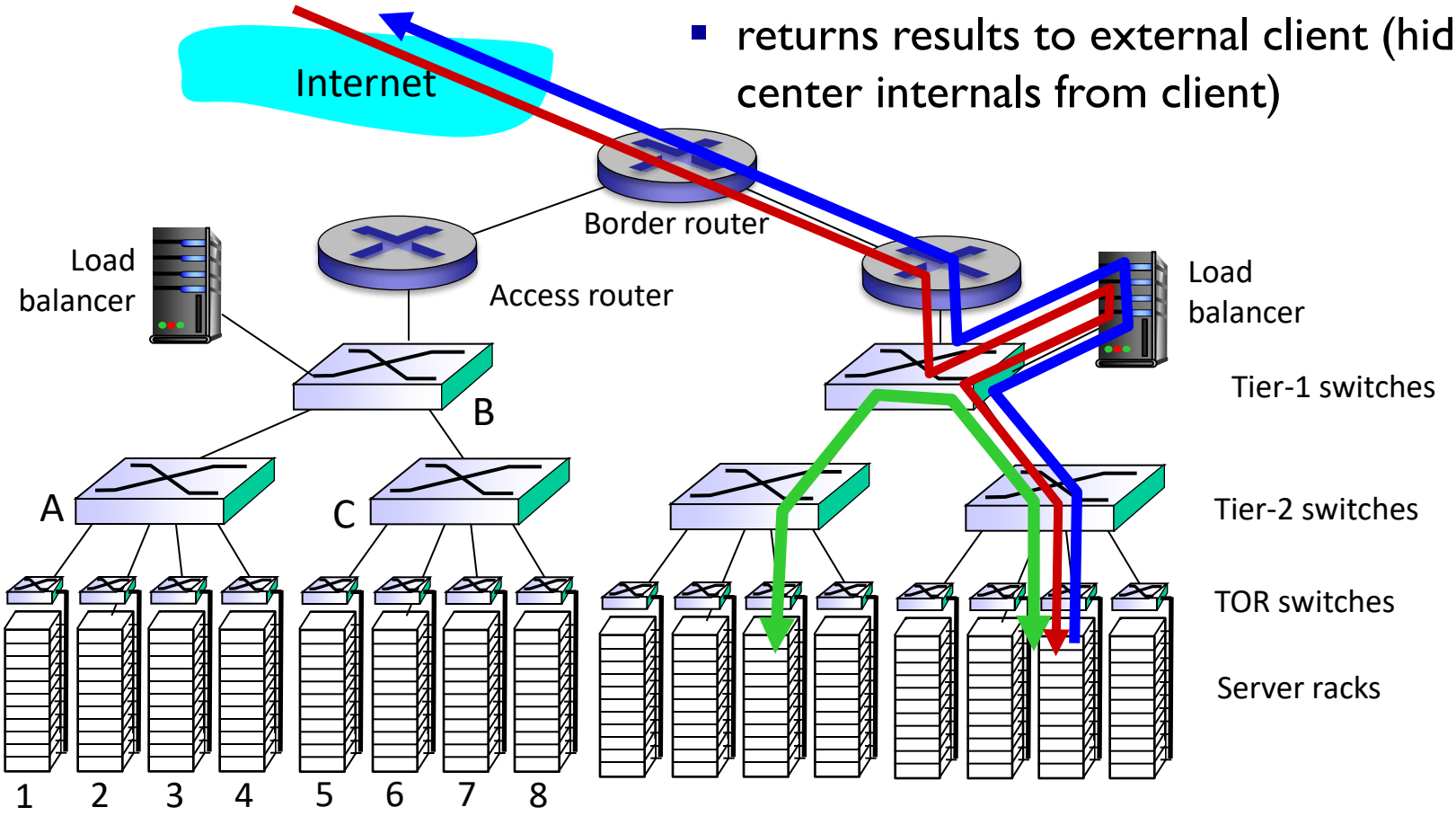
Top of Rack (TOR) switch
- one per rack
- 40-100Gbps Ethernet to blades

Server racks
- 20- 40 server blades: hosts

Data center networks

load balancer: application-layer routing

- receives external client requests
- directs workload within data center
- returns results to external client (hiding data center internals from client)



Data center networks

- rich interconnection among switches, racks:
  - increased throughput between racks (multiple routing paths possible)
  - increased reliability via redundancy

